



Discourse Analysis (ENG523)

VIRTUAL UNIVERSITY OF PAKISTAN

Lecture-08

Political Discourse and the Role of Multimedia in Discourse Analysis

POLITICAL DISCOURSE

Representation: Metaphor

One of the central concerns of political discourse is the question of how the world is presented to the public through particular forms of linguistic representation. For example, how is language used in attributing meaning to individuals and groups with reference to the performance of their social practices? How are actions and events perceived and described? Which modes of reference are used to signify places, objects and institutions within particular positive or negative frames? The claim is that “reality” is not simply given to us through language; rather it is mediated through different forms of language representation.

An interesting view has recently arisen in cognitive science concerning the nature of mental representation. This view is exemplified by the following passages:

- Most people think they can get along perfectly well without metaphor. We have found, on the contrary, that metaphor is persistent in everyday life, not just in language but in thought and action. Our ordinary conceptual system, in terms of which we both think and act, is fundamentally metaphorical in nature.
- The basic-level metaphors allow us to comprehend and draw inferences about these [emotion] concepts, using our knowledge of familiar, well-structured domains. In short, the locus of metaphor is not in language at all, but in the way we conceptualize one mental domain in terms of another.
- Human cognition is fundamentally shaped by various poetic or figurative processes.

As these quotations indicate, some researchers in cognition and language have argued that mental representation is at least in part metaphoric. Rather than seeing metaphors as being solely or even primarily a linguistic phenomenon, they have proposed it as a mode of representation and thought.

The reasoning behind this is that certain aspects of our knowledge are difficult for people to represent: They are overly abstract and complex, and therefore they are represented in terms of easier-to-understand domains, that is, metaphorically. Therefore, when we think about abstract ideas such as inflation, the mind, or anger, we use more concrete concepts, a process which "allows us to refer to it [an abstract concept], quantify it, identify a particular aspect of it and perhaps even believe that we understand it" (Lakoff and Johnson, 1980).

The argument for metaphoric representation is often made as part of an argument for Cognitive Linguistics as championed by Lakoff and his colleagues. However, I believe that the issue of metaphoric representation is an interesting and radical idea which deserves attention in its own right.

Lakoff (1987) and Johnson (1980) present the use of metaphor in thought as just one part of a predominant theory of the nature of the mind. But their arguments about "objectivist metaphysics," generative approaches to linguistics and other controversial ideas may have drawn attention away from this specific claim. Therefore, in this article I will examine metaphoric representation as a theory of conceptual structure. I will not be addressing most of the other views of its proponents. Of those views, metaphoric representation has probably had the most

direct influence on psychological research, through theories of idiom and metaphor comprehension. That said, however, it will be impossible to avoid mentioning other views expressed by Lakoff and Johnson (1980) or Lakoff (1987), because some of them are used to provide support for the notion of metaphoric representation.

One **disadvantage** in discussing metaphoric representation is that it is necessary to discuss verbal metaphor. And as is well known, metaphor is one of the most difficult and intransigent problems in language. Indeed, even defining metaphor is by no means an easy task. For the present purposes, then, a minimal description will have to serve. In **verbal metaphor**, there are usually two explicit parts: a topic, which is the entity being talked about, and the vehicle, which is the metaphoric material being predicated of the topic. (Some authors refer to these as the target and source, respectively.) For example, in Lee is a block of ice, Lee is the topic, and block of ice is the vehicle. The implicit connection between the two is often referred to as the ground. In this case, the ground is that blocks of ice have a cold temperature, and this is interpreted in terms of emotional unresponsiveness.

More generally, the relation between temperature and emotion provides the ground. Lakoff and Johnson (1980) do not provide a detailed theory of verbal metaphor; their discussion seems to accept this kind of view. That is, in insisting that representations are metaphoric or metonymic, they are contrasting them with a more straightforward relation (called direct understanding). Since the metaphoric relation is not direct, some kind of mapping is necessary. And in fact, much of Lakoff and Johnson and Kovecses (1986) consist in spelling out the mappings behind various conceptual metaphors.

Things turn “Critical”

In the late 1970s theorists suggested that the surface realization of language represented the transformation of an underlying reality (Wilson 1990). The work was based, mainly, on Halliday's (1985) functional linguistic theory, which viewed language as a “social fact.” In this view social and cognitive aspects become reflected within grammar. Politics and ideology were seen as displayed through grammatical structure, and analyzing language in this way was referred to as “Critical Linguistics.” This approach has since been expanded, both in methodology and theory, and is now seen as part of the broader analytic program known as **Critical Discourse Analysis (CDA)**. Wodak and Meyer (2009) moving the “linguistic” to a “multi- disciplinary and multi-methodological level”; although grammar remains a central tool in explaining how ideology, power, and domination become constituted through linguistic structures.

Van Dijk argues that CDA should not be seen as a method but as a form of critically driven theory and practice operationalized by politically concerned discourse analysts, whose aim is to use a variety of methods in the study of power abuse and inequality within society. Such an approach has been criticized for its own internal politicization, since it seems to begin with the assumption that certain data sets produce power abuse and then sets off to find and describe such abuse. Consequently, it is suggested that critical analysts are in danger of confirming what they already believed from the start. Further, CDA has been criticized for its claim to use linguistic analysis to confirm forms of power abuse. Widdowson (1995) argues that because of its critical orientation CDA “essentially sociological or socio-political rather than linguistic.” And it is also

possible that the political critique of political discourse for political purposes becomes a form of political discourse itself.

In the past 20 years the “critical” approach to language and to political discourse in particular, has been one of the fastest-growing areas of applied linguistic research. Many of the scholars writing on CDA have also been leaders in the field of political discourse; for example, Norman Fairclough, Ruth Wodak, and Teun van Dijk. The critical analyst sees political discourse as the use of words and phrases, syntactic processes, and discursive positioning, to either hide or distribute responsibility in certain ways, or designate specific individuals or groups as belonging to categories that may serve particular political purposes.

Political Sounds

In studies of political discourse there has been relatively little attention given to how politicians make use of phonetic, phonological, or supra-segmental features of language for political purposes. Sociolinguistic research indicates that the way we sound has an impact on how people perceive us, and this can range from our attractiveness and intelligence to our trustworthiness and employability.

We know that Margaret Thatcher modified her speech to make herself more attractive to voters, and that UK Prime Minister David Cameron’s upper-class accent “turns off” some voters. In the United States recent work has suggested that ex-Secretary of State Condoleezza Rice adopts selected African American speech forms in specific speech contexts and Hall-Lew, Coppock, and Starr (2010) claim that American politicians’ production of “Iraq’s” second vowel marks “political conservatism” when produced as /æ/ but political liberalism when produced as /a:/.

In studies of prosody within political interviews, politicians reflect a very fluid and positive style, with only short pauses in syntactically appropriate positions. It has also been claimed that the sounds of politicians’ own names, along with the rhythmic patterns they project, can also assist, or hinder, a politicians’ aim of attracting voters (Smith 1998). Duez (1997) has attempted to correlate aspects of acoustic patterning with degrees of political power. Duez suggests that aspects of acoustic delivery within the speeches of ex-French President François Mitterrand were affected by whether Mitterrand was in the role of challenger or opponent, as opposed to holder of the position of president. While in the role of president, Mitterrand made use of a slower articulation rate, but when in the position of challenger, or opponent, the articulation rate was much more rapid. Hence, Duez suggests that temporal organization could reflect relative distance from “power.”

A number of studies have also attempted to integrate the prosodic level of language with discursive and pragmatic levels. Braga and Aldina Marques (2004), argue that supra-segmental features may be harnessed and used in correlation with syntactic, lexical, and pragmatic features to achieve specific political effects. In a study of political debates, politicians focused on a set of prosodic features, including pitch, emphasis, and focus and noted that particular patterns were found to match argumentative goals such as assertiveness, irony, emotion, and hyperbole. While the study of sounds and sound patterns involves a variety of technical forms of analysis, it is nonetheless an important component of the consideration of political discourse.

DISCOURSE AND MEDIA

Approaches to Media Discourse *Current Question*

Media discourse refers to interactions that take place through a broadcast platform, whether spoken or written, in which the **discourse** is oriented to a non-present reader, listener or viewer.

Though the discourse is oriented towards these recipients, they very often cannot make instantaneous responses to the producer of the discourse, though increasingly this is changing with the advent of new media technology, as we shall explore. Crucially, the written or spoken discourse itself is oriented to the readership or listening/viewing audience, respectively. In other words, media discourse is a public, manufactured, on-record, form of interaction. It is not ad hoc or spontaneous (in the same way as casual speaking or writing is); it is neither private nor off the record. Obvious as these basic characteristics may sound, they are crucial to the investigation, description and understanding of media discourse.

The three main approaches to the study of media discourse can be characterized as

- Discourse analytic
- Sociolinguistic
- Nonlinguistic

Discourse **analytic approach** is the primary focus of scholars in the study of media discourse. Discourse analytic approaches that underlie a great deal of the research on media can be characterized as hybrids of existing frameworks of pragmatics, conversation analysis, variation, narrative analysis and interactional sociolinguistics optionally interlaced with sociological content analysis. For example, the approach can be “critical” in the sense of looking at social impact or inequality or concern political economy in the sense of the social value of language without necessarily bring into line with a major tradition, such as discourse analysis or media studies. “**Discourse analytic**” paradigm, which addresses discourse-level matters related to larger stretches of talk and text beyond the word or sentence level, including questions of participant, topic, function, and discourse structure, as well as a range of topics that includes news interviews, quotation and reported speech, register issues, politeness, positioning and framing.

The term “**sociolinguistic**” for work that involves variation and style in the media or a similar close analysis of language. Sociolinguistic insights, either to characterize some dimension of media language, such as variation and style, or to inform related discourse level work, such as genre and register. The “**nonlinguistic**” research involves work in political science, media studies, or communication studies paradigms and, to some degree, in cultural studies. Nonlinguistic domains are referred to by media discourse researchers perhaps more than in any other topical area of discourse analysis.

Narrative Structure

Journalists write stories, and accordingly, research into story structure or narrative becomes relevant to account for their motivations. Frameworks that have been successfully applied to other domains of talk, such as Labov's (1972) narrative framework have also been applied to news discourse. For example, Bell (1991) uses Labov's framework to examine the global narrative structure of news across local and national news boundaries, while van Dijk (1988) outlines a "theory of discourse schemata," which includes the traditional Labovian narrative schema as well as a more elaborated "news schema" a "series of hierarchically ordered categories" that helps define the discourse (van Dijk 1988: 49). Bell (1991, 1994, and 1998) has long compared the structure of news stories to personal narratives, noting their similarities and divergences, and using the Labovian framework as a point of departure.

The discursive elaboration and alteration of time elements in the news narrative is another feature distinctive to media discourse. Linear chronology is not important in a news story to the extent one would think: "Perceived news value overturns temporal sequence and imposes an order completely at odds with the linear narrative point" (Bell 1991). In their manipulation of sequential elements, reporters are not stenographers or transcribers; they are storytellers and interpreters. This point about a reordered "news chronology," constrained by the norms of text and content that underlie news discourse, comes up again in the work of media researchers Manoff and Schudson (1986).

Ultimately, the researchers are trying to determine what the placement of these profession bounded informational elements means in the context of news structure and discourse organization. The surface simplicity of the writing rules (which are standard across newswriting textbooks) and the complexity of their outputs (which varies across presentation domains) have only begun to get the attention they deserve. Bell (1991), for instance, notes the common practice in news-story construction of embedding one speech event into another. For example, a quotation from an interview is surrounded by information from a press release, but on the surface it is realized as a unified, coherent "story." Likewise, Cotter (1999a, in press), in discussing the progress of a story through time, and Knight and Nakano (1999), in delineating the "press release reality" that informed reporting of the historic 1997 Hong Kong handover, elaborate on the role of multiple texts and multiple authors in the production of news. This multiparty/multi-element infrastructure has been remarked on by other researchers (such as van Dijk 1988), who draw a range of conclusions, depending on their research focus.

Audience Consideration

Attention to audience is the first step away from text-focused analyses of media, and many researchers are aware that a theoretical position of media discourse that includes the audience is desirable. Different linguists or theorists offer different conceptualizations of the audience and its role in the construction of media realities. In the approaches, which are being addressed here, the

audience is conceived of as part of the discourse mechanism. This is in contrast with more conventional assumptions about mass communication which rely on the active sender–passive receiver “conduit” model, which is now contested. The position of the audience may be one of the more salient differentiating features of the various research paradigms.

A great deal of the research (from within discourse analysis and sociolinguistics and outside of it) either casts the audience as individuals who do not have much choice in resisting media power, or credits the audience’s role with more equality in the relationship: as being both active and acted upon. There are different ways to explore the concept of audience agency or interaction in media discourse. Goffman’s frame analysis of radio talk (1981) was one of the first to articulate and apply the insight that the relationships among the different interlocutors determine the nature of the speech event and the talk that is appropriate to it. Similarly, in Bell’s view (1991), which builds on Goffman’s categories of participant roles, the media audience takes on multiple roles: that of speaker, addressee, auditor, overhearer, and eavesdropper. As media-savvy participants in the larger culture, we recognize audience roles and embedded points of view and are conscious when an interviewee – or an interviewer – departs from a prescribed position.

Meinhof’s work on the visual and textual double messages in television news, which she argues have cross-cultural implications, is consciously predicated on a focus away from “text-internal readings, where readers are theorized as decoders of fixed meanings, to more dynamic models, where meanings are negotiated by actively participating readers” (Meinhof 1994: 212). Her own three-part taxonomy of communication, which circumvents the sender–receiver model and is briefer than Goffman’s and Bell’s characterizations, includes actors, activities or events, and the affected, the effect, or outcome.

The audience is considered from cognitive perspectives, as well. Van Dijk and Kintsch (1983) led the early work on the cognitive factors in the processing of information that influence comprehension of texts by readers. They establish that hierarchical relations exist among discourse strategies; that information comes from many sources within text and context; and that “forward” and “backward” interpretation strategies operate on the local level to specify the meaning and constrain interpretation – insights that background many current assumptions about audience interplay with text. In comprehension research such as this, the audience and its range of innate psycholinguistic abilities are assumed and essentially backgrounded in the discussion of other issues. This stands in contrast to the work by investigators who incorporate the tenets of reception analysis in their investigation of media discourse, a blend of methodologies that has received little attention by linguists (Richardson 1998).

In Richardson’s work, the audience is foregrounded as a key element in the production of discourse meaning both through the researchers’ emphasis on audience comprehension of texts, and by the audience’s response to texts in the data-eliciting process itself. Bell (1984, 1991) has worked to articulate a framework for considering the role of the audience on the sociolinguistic

level, using phonological, lexical, syntactic, and pragmatic evidence to construct a theory of “audience design.” Major insights of the framework involve the role of style, which in different ways can either be responsive to the linguistic norms of an audience, or refer in some way to a “third party, reference group or model” outside of the speech community (Bell 1991: 127).

Style strategies, thus, can be seen as playing an essential role in redefining and renegotiating the media’s relationship to the audience. Finally, Cotter (1993, 1999a) attempts to characterize the nature of the relationship between the news community and the “community of coverage” it serves. This work focuses on the interactive properties of the “pseudo-dyadic” relationship that exists between the two communities, as well as on the dynamic of “reciprocal transmission” – “the interplay of texts, creators, and audience” which allows the media to engage on the social or phatic level, at the same time providing content that “captures facts about our social worlds” (Cotter 1999a: 168).

ADVERTISING AND DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

Advertising Messages as Samples of Social Interaction and Activities

Advertising is a means of communication with the users of a product or service. Advertisements are messages paid for by those who send them and are intended to inform or influence people who receive. **Ads** are wonderful examples of the diverse roles discourse can fulfill in society. To consider them as discourse types can prove very enlightening about the ways people communicate and relate to each other within the different spheres where they perform their daily activities. This exemplary character is basically connected with the very nature of ads: **advertising** is one of the liveliest and most representative forms of discourse when it comes to displaying its own inner functioning, since it not only enhances its status as a linguistic form of communication but also foregrounds the need for context when it comes to the full understanding of the overall message which is the cornerstone of discourse analysis as a method of discursive interpretation (Cook, 1992).

As a discourse type, **advertising** has always suffered the consequences of a perceived marginal status, at different levels. This marginality has to do with the very nature of ads. In fact, one of the outstanding characteristics of this relatively young form of discourse is its ability to search successfully desirable elements from other, more clearly defined discourses in order to borrow credibility from others or enhance some of its own features (Williamson, 1978). The resulting restlessness and ambiguity contribute to a feeling of mistrust towards it: its features are not its own and ad discourse might even threaten to replace others, which are more firmly established, because of this ability to draw inspiration from all possible sources (Freitas, 2010), even when ads are able to incorporate criticism to themselves as useful material for creation (Myers, 1999). On account of not enjoying the status of a fully established discourse, advertising has consistently been a target for attacks aimed at its lack of essential and defining characteristics (Geis, 1982). This elusiveness would then account for the difficulty of establishing boundaries on which to base effective standards for assessing and evaluating this form of communication.

Advertising has also been denied seriousness of purpose on the grounds of its ultimate commercial aims (Myers, 1999). Broadly speaking, these aims would include the sales promotion of a given product or service, the firm establishment of the presence of a given brand in the public's mind, or even the reassurance of the public as to the quality of the product in the event of rebranding strategies (Brierley, 1995, Wells et al, 1998, Yeshin, 2006). This kind of socially oriented criticism attacks advertising on moral grounds: the hidden agenda behind advertising discourse introduces a financial element in this communication process that taints it and causes it to be seen as less worthy of serious attention (Freitas, 2010). After all, ads consist in messages that are paid for, conveyed in a space or time.

Examining Ads in Context: advertising seen through the eyes of discourse analysis

Advertising is referred to as a form of discourse in the sense that it has influenced not only the structure of language and the modality of lifestyle, but also the content of routine daily acts of communicative exchanges. The messages of advertising have permeated the entire cultural landscape. Printed advertisements fill the pages of newspapers and magazines. Commercials interrupt TV and radio programs constantly. As Beasley and Danesi (2002) pointed out, "brand names, logos, trademarks, jingles, and slogans have become part and parcel of the 'mental encyclopedia' of virtually everyone who lives in a modern-day society" (See Wodak, 2006a, 2006b; Wadak, 2007). **Advertising** has progressed beyond the use of simple techniques for announcing the availability of products or services. It has expressed into the domain of persuasion, and its rhetorical categories have become universal in contemporary social discourse. Because of the growing effectiveness of its persuasion techniques, advertising has become entrenched into social discourse by virtue of its wide spread diffusion throughout society.

Everywhere one turns, one is bound to find some ad message designed to persuade people to buy a product. All this leads to the inescapable conclusion that advertising has developed, since the first decades of the 20th century, into a privileged form of social discourse that has unparalleled rhetorical force. With the advent of industrialization in the 19th century, style of presentation became increasingly important in raising the persuasive efficacy of the ad text. Accordingly, advertising started to change the structure and use of language and verbal communication. Everything from clothes to beverages was being promoted through resourceful new techniques. As the 19th century came to a close American advertiser in particular were, as Dyer (1982) points out, using more colloquial, personal and informal language to address the customer and also exploiting certain effective rhetorical devices to attract attention to a product. So persuasive had this new form of advertising become that, by the early decades of the 20th century, it started becoming a component of social discourse, starting to change some of the basic ways in which people communicated with each other and in which they perceived commodities and services. From the 1920s onwards, advertising agencies sprang up all over, broadening the attempts of their predecessors to build a rhetorical bridge between the product and the consumer's consciousness (See Sayer, 2006; Saussure & Schulz, 2005).

The language of advertising has become the language of all, even of those who are critical of it.

As Twitchell (2000) puts it "language about products and services has pretty much replaced language about all other subjects". It is no exaggeration to claim that today most of our information, intellectual stimulation, and lifestyle models come from, or are related to, advertising images. Positioning and image creation have become the primary techniques of what has come to be known as the era of persuasion in advertising.

This is an era in which **advertising messages** have moved away from describing the product in itself to focusing on the consumer of the product, creating product imagery with which the consumer can easily identify (Woodward and Denton, 1988). Ads and commercials now offer the same kinds of promise and hope to which religions and social philosophies once held

exclusive rights: security against the hazards of old age, better positions in life, popularity and personal prestige, social advancement, better health, and happiness.

Lack of clear discourse boundaries: multimodality and overall coherence in advertising messages as addressed by discourse analysis

Ads are good examples of why communication processes should be analyzed in a global manner.

Although a complete analysis that encompasses every element is not possible for the reasons mentioned above, analysis should strive, nonetheless, to take as much as possible into account: ‘Actual analyses, of course, develop in detail only a small part of the full picture. However, any discourse analysis needs, at least, to give some consideration, if only as background, to the whole picture’ (Gee, 2005).

In the specific case of multimedia advertising campaigns, the ‘whole picture’ should doubtlessly be the main focus of analysis. This is where the message effectively lies, since ‘each medium presents its own obvious advantages for advertisers, but also some disadvantages. Multimedia campaigns offer one way of compensating for the weaknesses of one channel by using the strong points of others’ (Freitas, 2004). In that manner, the intended ‘advertising pressure’ can be exerted upon the viewers (Brochand et al., 1999), guaranteeing that, in one way or another, they will be exposed to at least a part of the divulgation effort.

A possible way of undertaking the analyses of such a campaign is by bearing in mind a number of building tasks and discourse analysis questions that are at pale when we assess any sample of ‘language in use’: they have to do with

- (1) the significance that a piece of language can lend to certain situations and the way this happens;
- (2) what situations this piece of language is creating in such a way that they are recognized by the others. Another important issue is related to the establishment of
- (3) specific identities and
- (4) relationships by means of this language sample (Gee, 2005). A given piece of language will also indicate some sort of
- (5) assessment on social values, will
- (6) establish connections with other utterances, making them relevant to the present one, as well as
- (7) attribute prevalence to a given sign system over others (Gee, 2005).



Discourse Analysis of Telecom Ads:

It can be seen that the ad has used different font sizes and colors to grab the attention of the audience. It is also noticed that the information regarding the conditions that apply in availing the promoted product or services are given at the bottom of the layout in fine prints. People hardly read that part because it is written in very small fonts. People tend to ignore the information not deliberately but unconsciously, which are written in small font as it does not attract people as much as the big colored fonts. It is tactics followed by the ad makers to make the audience not to notice all the written information.

Lecture-09

Approaches and Methodologies in Discourse-I

DISCURSIVE PSYCHOLOGY AND DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

*Current Question***Principals of Discursive Psychology**

Discursive psychology is an approach that addresses psychological matters in terms of how they figure in discourse in conversations over family mealtimes, in therapy sessions, in witness statements. It begins with psychology, as it confronts people as they live their lives.

Discursive psychology is usefully understood as working with three fundamental observations about the nature of discourse. Discourse is:

- Oriented to action
- Situated sequentially, institutionally and rhetorically
- Constructed and constructive

These observations' structure analytic work in DP. We will take them in turn.

Discourse is action orientation

DP starts with a focus on discourse as a central resource for performing action. These may be comparatively discrete actions, which have speech act verbs associated with them invitation, complaint, say or they may be complex, institutionally fixed practices where no speech act verb exists using questions to give 'person centered' advice, perhaps. Often actions are done indirectly, via descriptions of some kind that provide a different kind of accountability for the speaker than an 'on-the-record' speech act. The key point is that discourse is studied for how action is done rather than treated as a medium for access to putative mental objects (intentions, dislikes). This is a very different start-point from that of cognitive psychology, which was largely born out of an engagement with linguistics, and more specifically out of a concern with grammatical structure and abstract semantics (Potter and te Molder, 2005).

Discourse is situated

A central recognition of DP is that actions are **situated**. The most profound way that action is situated is in terms of the here and now of conversational sequence. Talk is occasioned. This point is at the heart of discursive psychological research practice. When we move from language as an abstract system that has a static and abstract relation to the world and to mental organizations to an action-focused approach, we are immediately considering the way events unfold in real time. A **second major way in which an action is situated is institutionally**. DP does not adopt a position of contextual determinism; it does not treat all interaction in a doctor's surgery, say, as intrinsically medical. Nor does it treat institutional talk as organized into coherent, conceptually organized discourses, such that medical settings will implicate a medical discourse or register.

A **third major way in which an action is situated is rhetorically**. This came out of the early engagement with Billig's (1996) rhetorical psychology. It highlights the way that descriptions are often organized to counter actual or potential alternatives and organized in ways that manage actual or possible attempts to undermine them (Potter, 1996). A major theme in DP is the way

epistemic issues are managed using a wide range of conversational and rhetorical resources (Potter and Hepburn, 2008).

Discourse is constructed and constructive

Discourse is constructed from a range of resources words, categories, rhetorical commonplaces, grammatical structures, repertoires, conversational practices and so on, all of which may be delivered in real time, with prosody and timing, or is built into documents with specific layouts, fonts and so on. These resources, their use and their conditions of assembly can become topics of DP study. They are both resources for action and challenges that may require management in order for one to work round their specific affordances.

Methodological Procedures of Discursive Psychology

Although there are some differences of emphasis, contemporary DP draws heavily on the methods and approach of conversation analysis. A typical DP study will work with a set of audio or video recordings collected in some setting. Recent work has used phone calls to neighbor dispute mediation service, calls to a child protection helpline, video records of family mealtimes. Researchers often draw on more familiar sets of mundane records of phone interaction to do primary or comparative work.

Such materials will be digitized and often copied in one pass by a transcription service that is meant to capture the basic words and speaker transitions. This can facilitate searches through material for particular themes or events of interest. Often these are generated through data sessions in which a number of researchers engage with a single example, with repeated viewings or listening's and this stimulates introductory ideas that lead to a search for new examples. Such a search can start to build a introductory body of examples. These are typically transcribed using the system developed by Gail Jefferson (2004), which captures features of delivery that are oriented to by participants overlap, volume, prosody in a way that makes them visible on the page.

Analysis and data sessions, however, typically work with both video/audio and transcript; the latter is not planned to replace the prior. Unlike in more traditional social psychological work, specific research questions are rarely developed prior to the research; rather, the research often takes the setting as the key driver of questions (what kind of practices go on in a neighbor mediation helpline?) or works with a broad orientation to materials (in what sense can we find practices of advice giving in these helpline calls?).

A study will commonly work with a flexible corpus of examples. As analysis develops, the corpus will be refined. Some examples will be uncontrolled and new examples will be recognized, and therefore included in the corpus. The corpus will often start with standard cases and try to clarify them, and then consider different or counter cases, which may provide further specification of the phenomena.

With interactional materials the orientations of the participants themselves are a primary analytic resource, as these display their understanding of what is going on in its most basic way. Heritage (2004) suggests that participants turn towards interaction in at least three ways. **First**, they address themselves to immediately preceding talk. **Second**, they set up the conditions for the action or actions that will come next. **Third**, in the production of next actions, participants show a set of understandings of the prior action: that it is complete, that it was addressed to them rather than someone else, what kind of action it was and so on. This atmosphere provides for the intelligibility of interaction that is crucial for participants and offers an extraordinarily rich resource for analysts.

Studies in Discursive Psychology

Intention: institutions and practices

Ideas of intention have had a range of different roles in the social sciences. One of the most influential is probably in the field social cognition, where the theory of planned behaviour (Ajzen, 1991) has been associated with more than a thousand articles in the last two decades. This theory treats intentions as the product of a number of different elements, which work in combination to affect behavioural outcomes. Intention is treated as a kind of mental push that will result in the person engaging in the actual behaviour, unless something intervenes to prevent it.

Some philosophers have criticized this kind of approach to intentions by offering a conceptual analytic picture of intentions as a language game for making distinctions between different kinds of actions (e.g., Austin, 1961).

Rather than engage in such conceptual analysis, Derek Edwards (2008) opts for an approach that considers intentions through considering the practical use of attributions of intention, of the term intention, and of intentional language more broadly. He notes that actually there is a very wide range of semantic and grammatical resources that can be used to denote that something was intended or done intentionally.

Attitude: caring and closing

One of the major areas of historical and contemporary social psychology is the study of attitudes. Indeed, attitudes are a commonplace of work from across the social sciences. The discursive psychological critique of the way attitudes was conceptualized was developed right from the start (Potter and Wetherell, 1987, 1988; Potter, 1998). It emphasized that evaluations were part of practices embedded in interaction, where they played particular roles. And it emphasized that evaluations are often produced by constituting the 'attitudinal object' in particular ways rather than by claiming a personal psychological position.

Another feature of this developing critique of attitude work is that it starts to break up the idea of a single underlying attitudinal dimension in favor of considering the way different kinds of evaluations can be produced for different purposes. **For example**, Wiggins and Potter (2003) highlighted the different roles of ‘objective’ and ‘subjective’ food evaluations – ‘that pasta is lovely’ vs ‘I love that pasta.’

INTERACTIONAL SOCIOLINGUISTICS AND DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

What is Interactional Sociolinguistics?

Current Question

Interactional sociolinguistics (IS) studies the language use of people in face-to-face interaction. It is a theoretical and methodological perspective on language use with eclectic roots in a wide variety of disciplines such as dialectology, ethnomethodology, conversation analysis, pragmatics, linguistic anthropology, micro-ethnography and sociology. Basically, IS starts from the finding that, when people talk, they are unable to say explicitly enough everything they mean. As a result, to appreciate what is meant, they cannot simply rely on the words that are used but must also depend on background knowledge, to discover what others assumed the relevant context was for producing words in.

In fact, people can get very angry when they are put to the test and asked to explain precisely what they meant. Imagine telling a colleague that you had a flat tire while driving to work, after which that colleague replies: ‘What do you mean, you had a flat tire?’ Or suppose you ask an acquaintance: ‘How are you?’, and you are being asked in return:

‘How am I in regard to what? My health, my finance, my school work, my piece of mind, my... In both cases you might experience surprise or confusion because you feel no extra explanation is necessary. You may even consider such questions improper and angrily retort: ‘Look! I was just trying to be polite. Frankly, I don’t give a damn how you are!’

Such reactions indicate that people expect each other to treat talk as incomplete and to fill in what is left unsaid; but also, that people trust each other to provide a suitable interpretation of their words, that is, they expect one another to be aware of the social world that extends beyond the actual setting and of the norms for the use of words that apply there. Put in another way, IS holds that, because of the incompleteness of talk, all language users must rely on extra-communicative knowledge to infer, or make hypotheses about, how what is said relates to the situation at hand and what a speaker possibly intends to convey by saying it.

Interactional sociolinguists in principle try to describe how meaningful contexts are implied via talk, how and if these are picked up by relevant others, and how the production and reception of talk influences subsequent interaction. As the examples above show, misinterpreting or failing to make hypotheses frustrates others’ expectations that you may be willing to share the same view on what background knowledge is relevant, and this may cost you a friend. Below, we will see that misinterpreting may result in even greater social damage, but before we go into this it is necessary to take a closer look at how speakers’ flag, or index, meaningful contexts by using only a limited but suggestive set of tools. If talk is incomplete, interact-ants need to do completion work. They have to find out what unstated context a certain word flags or points at for it to be made sense of. Consequently, words can be said to have indexical meaning, and it is this meaning that interact-ants need to bring to bear when they interpret talk.

This is obvious with terms such as ‘this’, ‘there’, ‘you’ or ‘soon’, terms that have been traditionally called indexical or ‘deictic’ in linguistics: every ‘this’ and ‘soon’ points at the specific context in which it is used, where each time one has to complete its new and specific meaning. But other words can be considered indexical as well. If this makes you wonder how

people manage to make the right inferences at all, it is necessary to know that much talk is quite conventional, or that it tends to produce typical sequences of words and appropriate contexts for producing them in. There aren't dozens of ways of casually greeting one another, so you can be safe to assume that 'how are you?'

In sum, making inferences on the basis of talk is inextricably bound up with evaluation and identity in an unequally rewarding social world. We've already seen that there are social repercussions when misunderstandings occur: one may be found unintelligible or impolite. These repercussions only magnify when interactants find themselves in unequal social positions (imagine saying 'How am I in regard to what?' to your boss's friendly greeting) and in stressful situations such as job application interviews. Things start to look even bleaker when interactants' interactional sociolinguistics and discourse analysis have culturally different inferencing habits or contextualization styles, in other words when they interpret cues differently or produce cues that the other party does not pick up. It is with such recipes for disaster that a number of classic IS studies have been concerned with, and I turn to these in the next section.

How do you make an IS analysis?

If you want to make an IS analysis, you will need first-hand data that are as rich as possible. This usually implies doing long-term ethnographic fieldwork in one setting during which you familiarize yourself with the local communicative ecology, appreciate how it is related to broader social structures and assemble as much commentary from participants as possible. Without this ethnographic knowledge, it will be difficult to pick up the background knowledge that interactants in that setting only display via subtle references. Recordings (digital or otherwise) of naturally occurring speech are a must-have, since it is next to impossible to reconstruct interactions from memory in the amount of detail you need in order to discover their moment-to-moment organization. It is not always easy to make recordings, but, once you have them, they will allow you to revisit the recorded scene as much as you like so as to check hypotheses. Making a transcript of your recordings is the following indispensable and quite time-intensive step.

Which extracts are important clearly depends on your research goals? But it is typical for ethnographic research that these may sometimes slightly shift focus when you arrive at the scene. For these purposes, the researcher Rampton (1995), initially expected to find adolescents from different ethnic backgrounds playing around with each other's heritage languages and finding an interactional common ground in spite of their ethnic differences (cf. Rampton, 1995). But such behavior was hard to find, and instead he (Rampton) noticed that ethnic minority students dominated the classroom floor and silenced most other voices by excelling in what they called 'doing ridiculous', that is, slowing down and parodying the lesson (and later on also research interviews) in not entirely unruly ways. Furthermore, in spite of the fact that these students are widely noted in Belgium as incompetent or unwilling speakers of Dutch, it turned out that they regularly switched from one Dutch variety to another for special effect, and Rampton (1995) felt that bringing out such versatile language skills would help me to rub against common stereotypes. Therefore, he started identifying all occasions in the data where such playful behavior could be found and then categorized them according to variety (examples of playful Antwerp dialect, Standard Dutch, mock English, mock Turkish, etc.).

Why is Interactional Sociolinguistics important?

Interactional Sociolinguistics is important because it draws our attention to the existence of subtle cultural differences in the systematic combination of verbal and non-verbal signs which signal contexts and construct meaning, differences that are often hard to pin down by those who use them. IS can claim credit for having shown in great detail that disastrous consequences may follow if such different styles remain hidden and lead to miscommunication in gatekeeping encounters: applicants do not only fail to get a job or admission to a course, but often find their personal and ethnic background targeted as the cause for communication failure. IS has thus managed to uncover meaning and reason behind communicative styles that are regularly identified as inarticulate and incoherent, and the social relevance of this cannot be underestimated. It has shown that seemingly unintelligible job applicants or uninterested children are in fact sensible and involved if you (are willing to) read their contextualization cues in an appropriate way or you are prepared to accept their different cueing habits.

IS has also illustrated that technically differing styles do not necessarily lead to miscommunication, just as miscommunication itself does not automatically lead to conflict or stereotyping. As mentioned above, a readiness for observing and acknowledging differences can overcome even seriously diverging communication styles, or, conversely, the absence of difference does not always prevent negative identification or willful misunderstanding from taking place. These findings invite us to look beyond the actual interactional setting and observe how interactants approach and evaluate one another as differently positioned social beings who may, depending on the circumstances, see each other as problematically or delightfully different. Even when the odds are unfavorable, interactants may find other identities, qualities or actions of a person valuable that may overrule communication difficulties and the effect of stereotyping (a talented football player's almost non-existent English will be passed over much more easily than that of an illegal refugee, who in her turn may find that her English is found cute and perfectly acceptable by her neighbors for whom she does babysitting). In other words, IS shows that communication is irrevocably a social happening where identities and relations matter, and which as such stands in close connection with wider social patterns and conventions that are also affected by it. This brings us to a third reason why IS is important.

IS offers an excellent tool for analyzing the tension between here-and-now interaction and more established discursive practices. In putting a microscope on interaction, IS makes clear that communication can never be taken for granted but always involves collaboration, collusion and negotiation. As the discussion in section 'How do you make an IS analysis?' illustrated, traces of these processes can be extremely subtle and may go unnoticed when looked at from a further distance, or their relevance may not be fully appreciated when discussed in isolation from the established practices that facilitated their production. IS, on the other hand, is well capable of attending to such subtle traces and to the accompanying perspectives of 'participants who are compelled by their subordinate positions to express their commitments in ways that are indirect, off-record and relatively opaque to those in positions of dominance' (Rampton, 2001). Consequently, IS can help to pinpoint those moments when established frames are called into question, reconfigured or otherwise transformed, and in this way, it can also indicate when creative restructurings give rise to emergent and potentially habitualizing social configurations. In short, IS can contribute to our understanding of larger social evolutions.

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND LINGUISTIC ANTHROPOLOGY

Physical Anthropology

Anthropology is a unique academic discipline that operates at the crossroads of the physical sciences, social sciences and humanities to examine the diversity of human experience across cultures and over time. Anthropologists in our department study everything from human evolution to prehistory to life in a globalizing world. Because of this breadth of focus, anthropology is highly relevant to understanding and living in a rapidly changing world.

Basic tenets of physical anthropology:

Holism: Holism means that a part of something can only truly be understood if examined within relation to the whole of it. For anthropologists, this means that they try to understand humankind through the interrelationships of all aspects of human existence for example, human biology has to be examined within the context of human cultures and vice versa. In addition, all of this must be examined within the context of the environment and historical processes. In an effort to be holistic, anthropology is often an interdisciplinary field that crosses over into other fields such as history, geology, and ecology.

Relativism: Relativism means that judgments, truths, or moral values have no absolutes, and can only be understood relative to the situation or individuals involved. For anthropologists, this means that they accept that all cultures are of equal value and must be studied from a neutral point of view.

A good anthropologist must disregard their own beliefs, morals, and judgments when examining another culture. They must, instead, examine each culture within the context of its own beliefs.

Universalism: Universalism means that whatever the theoretical principle is, it's equally applicable to all. For anthropologists, universalism means that we believe all humans are equal in intelligence, complexity, etc. This is in contrast to ethnocentrism, which is the belief that some peoples are more important or culturally/biologically better than other peoples.

Culture: All humans have culture. Culture is the set of learned behaviors and knowledge that belong to a certain set of people. This is different from genetically hardwired behaviors (such as reflexes) in that they aren't biologically inherited. The most important thing to remember is that culture is learned.

This may differ from linguistic anthropology because linguists will focus more on the way words are formed, for example, the phonology or vocalization of the language to semantics and grammar systems. For example, linguists pay close attention to "code-switching," a phenomenon that occurs when two or more languages are spoken in a region and the speaker borrows or mixes the languages in normal discourse. For example, when a person is speaking a sentence in English but completes his or her thought in Spanish and the listener understands and continues the conversation in a similar way. A linguistic anthropologist may be interested in code-

switching as it affects the society and evolving culture, but will not tend to focus on the study of code-switching, which would be more of an interest to the linguist.

Cultural Anthropology

Culture is the patterns of learned and shared behavior and beliefs of a particular social, ethnic, or age group. It can also be described as the complex whole of collective human beliefs with a structured stage of civilization that can be specific to a nation or time period. Humans in turn use culture to adapt and transform the world they live in.

Cultural anthropologists study the diversity of human cultures and societies around the world and the processes by which people construct local, regional and global forms of social relationships. Several anthropologists in our department study the processes by which people construct particular social identities, worldviews, and forms of community in a changing, globalizing world. In the contemporary world, much ethnography addresses the manner in which people in local communities orient themselves to global networks and institutions.

Anthropologists, in general, are more concerned with what discourse structuring might reveal about culture at large: ‘In every moment of talk, people are experiencing and producing their cultures, their roles, and their personalities’ (Moerman 1988: xi). The sequential organization of discourse, and conversational features such as overlapping patterns, breaks, silences, repairs and the like, can inform an understanding of both individual intention and cultural order. The genealogy of this technique of paying very close attention to discursive form, often also called ‘conversational analysis’, also traces back to the ethnomethodology of the 1960s and 1970s.

Cultural studies, takes discourse more globally to refer to particular areas of language use. This approach blurs together three levels of meaning: discourse is the act of talking or writing itself; it is a body of knowledge content; and it is a set of conditions and procedures that regulate how people appropriately may communicate and use that knowledge. Rather than the elemental structures of conversational interaction, this second approach to discourse pursues the connections between orders of communication, knowledge and power.

Cultural anthropology maintains relations with a great number of other sciences. It has been said of sociology, for instance, that it was almost the twin sister of anthropology. The two are presumably differentiated by their field of study (modern societies versus traditional societies). But the contrast is forced. These two social sciences often meet. Thus, the study of colonial societies borrows as much from sociology as from cultural anthropology. And it has already been remarked how cultural anthropology intervenes more and more frequently in urban and industrial fields classically the domain of sociology.

There have also been fruitful exchanges with other disciplines quite distinct from cultural anthropology. In political science the discussion of the concept of the state and of its origin has been nourished by cultural anthropology. Economists, too, have depended on cultural anthropology to see concepts in a more comparative light and even to challenge the very notion of an “economic man” (suspiciously similar to the 19th-century capitalist revered by the classical economists). Cultural anthropology has brought to psychology new bases on which to reflect on concepts of personality and the formation of personality. It has permitted psychology to develop a system of cross-cultural psychiatry, or so-called orthopsychiatry. Conversely, the psychological sciences, particularly psychoanalysis, have offered cultural anthropology new hypotheses for an interpretation of the concept of culture.

Linguistic Anthropology

Linguistic anthropology is the interdisciplinary study of how **language** influences social life. It is a branch of **anthropology** that originated from the endeavor to document endangered languages, and has grown over the past century to encompass most aspects of **language** structure and use. As a field of **anthropology**, **linguistic anthropologists** are concerned with how language influences culture. This can include how **language** impacts social interactions, beliefs, cultural identity, and other important aspects of culture.

Linguistic anthropologists have ventured into the study of everyday encounters, language socialization, ritual and political events, scientific **discourse**, verbal art, language contact and language shift, **literacy** events, and **media**. So, unlike linguists, linguistic anthropologists do not look at language alone, language is viewed as interdependent with culture and social structures.

According to Pier Paolo Giglioli in "**Language and Social Context**," anthropologists study the relation between worldviews, grammatical categories and semantic fields, the influence of speech on socialization and personal relationships, and the interaction of linguistic and social communities. In this case, linguistic anthropology closely studies those societies where language defines a culture or society. For example, in New Guinea, there is a tribe of indigenous people who speak one language. It is what makes that people unique. It is its "index" language. The tribe may speak other languages from New Guinea, but this unique language gives the tribe its cultural identity.

Linguistic anthropologists may also take an interest in language as it relates to socialization. It can be applied to infancy, childhood, or a foreigner being en-cultured. The anthropologist would likely study a society and the way that language is used to socialize its young.

In terms of a language's effect on the world, the rate of spread of a language and its influence on a society or multiple societies is an important indicator that anthropologists will study. For example, the use of English as an international language can have wide-ranging implications for

the world's societies. This can be compared to the effects of colonization or imperialism and the import of language to various countries, islands, and continents all over the world.

Lecture-10

Approaches and Methodologies in Discourse-II

ENGLISH FOR ACADEMIC PURPOSES AND DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

*Current Question*What is EAP?

English for Academic Purposes (EAP) is usually defined as teaching English with the aim of assisting learners' study or research in that language. In this sense it is a broad term, covering all areas of academic communicative practice such as pre-tertiary, undergraduate and post-graduate teaching, classroom interactions, academic publishing and curriculum issues, as well as research, student and instructional genres (e.g., Hyland, 2009a). The emergence of EAP in the 1980s, as a response to growing numbers of second language (L2) students in university courses and in a framework informed by English for specific purposes, originally produced an agenda concerned with curriculum and instruction rather than with theory and analysis.

EAP was then largely a materials and teaching-led movement focusing on texts and on the search for generic study skills, which could be integrated into language courses to make students more efficient learners. EAP has emphasized the rich diversity of texts, contexts and practices in which students must now operate. While it continues to be heavily involved in syllabus design and it needs analysis and materials development, EAP has moved away from purely pedagogic considerations to become a much more theoretically grounded and research informed innovativeness.

The role of EAP has therefore changed in response to changing conditions in the academy. The huge expansion of university places in many countries, together with an increase in full fee-paying international students to compensate for cuts in government support, has resulted in a more culturally, socially and linguistically diverse student population than ever before. In addition, students now take a broader and more heterogeneous mix of academic subjects. In addition to traditional single-subject or joint-honors degrees, we now find complex modular degrees and emergent 'practice-based' courses such as nursing, management and social work. These new course configurations are more discursively challenging for students who have to move between genres, departments and disciplines. Further, while in the past the main vehicles of academic communication were written texts, now a broad range of modalities and presentational forms confront and challenge students' communicative competence.

As a result, EAP has assumed greater prominence and importance in the academy, forcing it to evolve and to ask new questions. Instead of focusing on why learners have difficulties in accessing academic discourses, EAP now addresses the influence of culture and the demands of multiple literacies on students' academic experiences. These questions, moreover, accompany new challenges, which centre on the increased concern with the English language skills of non-native English-speaking academics. The ability to deliver workshops in English, to participate in meetings, to make presentations at international conferences and, above all, to conduct and publish research in English are all demanded as part of such lecturers' competence as academics. This group's needs are now beginning to be noticed and analyzed, and programs are emerging which cater to their particular requirements.

Current EAP aims, therefore, at capturing thicker descriptions of language use in the academy at all age and proficiency levels, incorporating and often going beyond immediate communicative

contexts to understand the nature of disciplinary knowledge itself. It employs a range of interdisciplinary influences for its research methods, theories and practices to provide insights into the structures and meanings of spoken, written, visual and electronic texts, into the demands placed by academic contexts on communicative behaviors, and into the pedagogic practices by which these behaviors can be developed. It is, in short, specialized English language teaching grounded in the social, cognitive and linguistic demands of academic target situations and informed by an understanding of texts and of the constraints of academic contexts. Discourse analysis is a key resource in this research agenda and has made an enormous contribution to our understanding of academic communication.

What has discourse analysis told us about EAP?

Discourse analysis is a collection of methods for studying language in action, looking at texts in relation to the social contexts in which they are used. Because language is an irreducible part of social life, connected to almost everything we do, this broad definition has been interpreted in various ways across the social sciences. In **EAP** it has tended to be a methodology which gives greater emphasis to actual texts than to institutional social practices, and has largely taken the form of focusing on particular academic genres such as the research article, the conference presentation, and the student essay.

Genre analysis can be seen as a more specific form of discourse analysis, which focuses on any element of recurrent language use, including grammar and lexis that is relevant to the analyst's interests. As a result, genre analysis sees texts as representative of wider rhetorical practices and so has the potential to offer descriptions and explanations both of texts and of the communities that use them. Genres are the recurrent uses of more or less conventionalized forms through which individuals develop relationships, establish communities and get things done using language.

Genres can therefore be seen as a kind of tacit contract between writers and readers, which influence the behavior of text producers and the expectations of receivers. By focusing on mapping typicality, genre analysis thus seeks to show what is usual in collections of texts, and so it helps to reveal underlying discourses and the preferences of disciplinary communities. These approaches are influenced by Halliday's (1994) view of language as a system of choices that link texts to particular contexts through patterns of lexico-grammatical and rhetorical features (Christie and Martin, 1997) and by Swales' (1990) observation that these recurrent choices are closely related to the work of particular discourse communities, whose members share broad social purposes.

Current Question

Perhaps the most **productive application of discourse analysis in EAP** has been to explore the lexico-grammatical and discursive patterns of particular genres in order to identify their recognizable structural identity. Analyzing this kind of patterning has yielded useful information about the ways in which texts are constructed and the rhetorical contexts in which such patterns are used, as well as providing valuable input for genre-based teaching.

Academic discourse analysis research has also pointed to cultural specificity in rhetorical preferences (e.g., Connor, 2002). Although 'culture' is a controversial term, one influential interpretation regards it as a historically transmitted and systematic network of meanings that

allow us to understand, develop and communicate our knowledge and beliefs about the world. Culture is seen as inextricably bound up with language (Kramsch, 1993), so that cultural factors have the potential to influence perception, language, learning and communication. Although it is far from conclusive, discourse analytic research suggests that the schemata of L2 and L1 (first language) writers differ in their preferred ways of organizing ideas that can influence academic writing (e.g., Hinkel, 2002).

An example analysis of an EAP genre

Discourse analyses of academic texts takes a variety of forms, tending towards the textual, the critical or the contextual, but there have been two main ways of studying interactions in writing. Researchers have examined the actions of individuals as they create particular texts (Bosher, 1998), or they have studied the distribution of different genre features to see how they cluster in complementary distributions (Biber, 2006).

One example of this is a study of self-mention, which concerns how far writers want to interrupt into their texts though use of 'I' or 'we', or avoid it by choosing impersonal forms. The use of self-mention is a rather annoyed issue in academic writing and remains a perennial problem for students, teachers and experienced writers alike; the extent to which one can reasonably assert one's personal involvement remains highly controversial. While claims have to be warranted by appropriate support and reference to existing knowledge by fitting novelty into a community consensus, success in gaining acceptance for innovation also involves demonstrating an individual contribution to that community and establishing a claim for recognition for academic priority. To some extent this is a personal preference, determined by seniority, experience, personality and so on (Hyland, 2010), but the study illustrated here shows that the presence or absence of explicit author reference is a conscious choice by writers to adopt a particular community-situated authorial identity (Hyland, 2001b).

In all disciplines, writers' principal use of the first person was to explain the work that they had carried out by way of representing their unique role in constructing a reasonable interpretation for a phenomenon. In the hard knowledge corpus and in the more quantitative papers in the soft fields, this mainly involved setting out methodological procedures so that self-mention helped to underline the writer's professional credentials through a familiarity with disciplinary research practices. In addition, it acts to highlight the part the writer has played in a process that is often represented as having no agents at all, reminding readers that, in other hands, things could have been done differently.

In more theoretically oriented articles writers sought less to figure as practical agents than as builders of coherent theories of reality. Explicit self-mention here establishes a more personal form of authority, one based on confidence and command of one's arguments.

It has to be said that the relationships between knowledge, the linguistic conventions of different disciplines and personal identity are ambiguous and complex. Yet it is equally true that these broad differences suggest that self-mention varies with different assumptions about the effects of authorial presence and rhetorical intrusion in different knowledge-making communities. These are issues worth addressing and exploring further with students, for only by developing a

rhetorical consciousness of these kinds of features can they gain control over their writing in academic contexts.

CORPUS APPROACHES TO DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

What is corpus and design of Corpora *Current Question*

Before discussing corpus-based approaches to discourse analysis it is necessary to define what a corpus actually is. It is generally assumed that a corpus is a collection of spoken or written authentic texts that is representative of a particular area of language use, by virtue of its size and composition. It is not always the case, however, that the corpus is representative of language use in general, or even of a specific language variety, as the data set may be very specialized (such as material collected from the internet) and it may not always be based on samples of complete texts. The data may also be only of the spoken or written discourse of a single person, such as a single author's written work. It is important, then, to be aware of the specific nature and source of corpus data so that appropriate claims can be made from the analyses that are based on it (Kennedy 1998, Tognini-Bonelli 2004).

A corpus is usually computer-readable and able to be accessed with tools such as concordances which are able to find and sort out language patterns. The corpus has usually (although not always) been designed for the purpose of the analysis, and the texts have been selected to provide a sample of specific text-types, or genres, or a broad and balanced sample of spoken and/or written discourse (Stubbs 2004).

“Corpus studies draw on collections of texts that are usually stored and analyzed electronically. They look at the occurrence and re-occurrence of particular linguistic features to see how and where they occur in the discourse. They may look at words that typically occur together (collocations) or they may look at the frequency of particular items. Corpus studies may look at language use in general, or they may look at the use of a particular linguistic feature in a particular domain, such as spoken academic discourse, or use of the item in a particular genre, such as university tutorial discussions.”

Corpora may be general or they may be specialized. A general corpus, also known as a reference corpus: “Aims to represent language in its broadest sense and to serve as a widely available resource for baseline or comparative studies of general linguistic features.” (Reppen and Simpson 2004). A **general corpus**, thus, provides sample data from which we can make generalizations about spoken and written discourse as a whole, and frequencies of occurrence and co-occurrence of particular aspects of language in the discourse. It will not, however, tell us about the language and discourse of particular genres or domain of use (unless the corpus can be broken down into separate genres or areas of use in some way). For this, we need a **specialized corpus**.

A **specialized corpus**, as Hunston (2002) explains is:

“A corpus of texts of a particular type, such as newspaper editorials, geography textbooks, academic articles in a particular subject, lectures, casual conversations, essays written by students etc. It aims to be representative of a given type of text. It is used to investigate a

particular type of language.” **Specialized corpora** are required when the research question relates to the use of spoken or written discourse in particular kinds of texts or in particular situations. A specialized corpus might be used, for example, to examine the use of hedges in casual conversation or the ways in which people signal a change in topic in an academic presentation. It might look at an aspect of students’ academic written discourse and compare this with use of the same features in published academic writing, or it may look at discourse features of a particular academic genre such as theses and dissertations, or a discourse level aspect of dissertation defenses.

Design and Construction of Corpora

There are, thus, a number of already established corpora that can be used for doing corpus-based discourse studies. These contain data that can be used for asking very many questions about the use of spoken and written discourse both in general and in specific areas of use, such as academic writing or speaking. If, however, your interest is in what happens in a particular genre, or in a particular genre in a setting for which there is no available data, then you will have to make up your own corpus for your study.

Hyland’s (2002) study of the use of personal pronouns such as *I*, *me*, *we* and *us* in Hong Kong student’s academic writing is an example of a corpus that was designed to answer a question about the use of discourse in a particular genre, in a particular setting. The specific aim of his study was to examine the extent to which student writers use self-mention in their texts ‘to strengthen their arguments and gain personal recognition for their claims’ in their written discourse, as expert writers do (Hyland 2005). His question was related to issues of discourse and identity, and the place of this writing practice in a particular academic and social community.

Harwood (2005) also compiled his own corpus for his study of the use of the personal pronouns *I* and *we* in journal research articles. For his study, Harwood selected research articles from electronic versions of journals as well as manually scanned articles and converted them to text format. His analysis of his data was both quantitative and qualitative. The quantitative analysis examined the frequency of writers’ use of *I* and *we* in the texts and the disciplines in which this occurred. The qualitative analysis examined the use of *I* and *we* from a functional perspective; that is, what the function was of these items in the texts, as well as possible explanations for their use. He then compared his findings with explanations of the use of *I* and *we* in published academic writing textbooks.

A further example of a researcher-compiled corpus is Ooi’s (2001) study of the language of personal ads on the World Wide Web. Ooi had to make up his own corpus to see how people use language in this particular genre. A large-scale corpus of language use on the world wide web, in general, would not have told him this. ‘Off the shelf’ corpora and custom-made corpora, then, each have their strengths, and their limitations.

The choice of which to use is, in part, a matter of the research question, as well as the availability, or not, of a suitable corpus to help with answering the question. It is not necessarily the case, however, that a custom-made corpus needs to be especially large. It depends on what the purpose of collecting the corpus is. As Sinclair (2001) has argued, small manageable corpora

can be put together relatively quickly and can be honed to very specific genres and very specific areas of discourse use. They can also be extremely useful for the teaching of particular genres and for investigating learner needs.

Issues to Consider in Constructing a Corpus

There are a number of issues that need to be considered when constructing a corpus.

- The first of these is what to include in the corpus; that is, the variety or dialect of the language, the genre(s) to be included, whether the texts should be spoken, written or both and whether the texts should be monologic, dialogic or multi-party.
- The next issue is the size of the corpus and of the individual texts, as well as the number of texts to include in each category. The issue is not, however, just corpus size, but also the way in which the data will be collected and the kinds of questions that will be examined using the data (McCarthy and Carter 2001). Even a small corpus can be useful for investigating certain discourse features.
- The sources and subject matter of the texts may also be an issue that needs to be considered.
- Other issues include sociolinguistic and demographic considerations such as the nationality, gender, age, occupation, education level, native language or dialect and the relationship between participants in the texts.

Authenticity, representativeness and validity of the corpus

Authenticity, representativeness and validity are also issues in corpus construction, as well as whether the corpus should present a static or a dynamic picture of the discourse under examination; that is, whether it should be a sample of discourse use at one particular point in time (a static, or sample corpus) or whether it should give more of a ‘moving picture’ view of the discourse that shows change in language use over a period of time (a dynamic, or monitor corpus) (Kennedy 1998 ; Reppen and Simpson 2002).

Kinds of texts to include in the corpus

A key issue is what kind of texts the corpus should contain. This decision may be based on what the corpus is designed for, but it may also be constrained by what texts are available. Another issue is the permanence of the corpus; that is, whether it will be regularly updated so that it does not become unrepresentative, or whether it will remain as an example of the use of discourse at a particular point in time (Hunston 2002).

Size of the texts in the corpus

The size of texts in the corpus is also a consideration. Some corpora aim for an even sample size of individual texts. If, for example, the corpus aims to represent a particular genre, and instances of the genre are typically long, or short, this needs to be reflected in the collection of texts that make up the corpus.

The **representativeness of the corpus** further depends on the extent to which it includes the range of linguistic distribution in the population. That is, different linguistic features are differently distributed (within texts, across texts, across text types), and a representative corpus must enable analysis of these various distributions.

A corpus, then, needs to aim for both representativeness and balance, both of which, as Kennedy (1998) points out, are in the end matters of judgment and approximation. All of this cannot be

done at the outset, however. The compilation of the corpus needs to take place in a cyclical fashion with the original design being based on theoretical and pilot study analyses, followed by the collection of the texts, investigation of the discourse features under investigation, then, in turn, revision of the design (Biber 1994). As Reppen and Simpson (2002) explain 'no corpus can be everything to everyone'. Any corpus in the end 'is a compromise between the desirable and the feasible' (Stubbs 2004).

POLITICS AS USUAL: INVESTIGATING POLITICAL DISCOURSE IN ACTION

Politics on ‘backstage’

It is much more difficult to explore the ‘backstage’, the everyday life of politicians, than the staging of ‘grand politics. Once we enter the backstage, for example in the European Parliament (see below), we encounter the routines of political organizations that are at first sight nontransparent and seem as chaotic as in any organization. Hence, ethnographic research is needed, such as participant observation in organizations, in-depth and narrative interviews, shadowing of insiders, and so forth to be able to grasp the processes of political strategizing and decision-making. Focusing only on typical front-stage activities (such as political speeches, for example) does not suffice to understand and explain the complexity of ‘politics. This is why the organizational contexts (structures, rules, regulations, and constraints) have to be accounted for in detail.

Issues of power, hegemony and ideology have been reconceived as central to social and linguistic practices in all organizations, since all organizational forms can be translated into language and communication and because, as Deetz (1982: 135) concluded, talk and writing ‘connect each perception to a larger orientation and system of meaning’. The distinction between structure and agency is useful, since it moves us away from a preoccupation with individual motivations and behaviors to the discursive practices through which organizational activity is performed in ritualized in ever new ways. Four prominent linguistic–discursive approaches have proven particularly influential in organizational research to date: ethno-methodology; conversation analysis (CA); sociolinguistic analysis; and (critical) discourse analysis (CDA).

Ethnomethodology, whilst technically rooted in sociology, emphasizes the conditions that have to be satisfied for certain actions to be perceived as signifying a recognized sanction (Garfinkel et al., 1981). Conversation analysis (CA) identifies the very detailed aspects of members’ turn-taking strategies that are critical to performance and membership (Schegloff, 1987; Drew and Heritage, 1992) and deals with relatively short stretches of interaction as being revealing and representative of, the organizations’ interactional principles. Sociolinguistic analysis has a basis in the tradition of correlating sociological parameters (e.g., age, class and gender) with variations in organizational discourse (Bernstein, 1987). Interactional sociolinguistics has its origins in symbolic interactionism (Goffman, 1959) and is further developed in the broad domain of discourse studies, and responds to the criticism that the first approach underplays the effect of context on organizational discourse.

Studies in this domain are not only labor-intensive due to the required ethnography, but they are usually organized as case studies that are not easy to generalize from. Nevertheless, Holzschneider’s investigation into decision-making procedures about legal requirements of child protection on the UN level allows important insight into the debates of NGOs and their impact on government officials (2005). Duranti’s participant observation of a US senator’s election campaign trail raised awareness about the many discursive practices and persuasive devices required to keep on track such a huge campaign and related persons (2006). Decision-making processes involving both written materials (such as minutes, statements and programs) and debates in committees lie at the core of qualitative political science research into Israeli community centers (Yanow, 1996) and of text-linguistic and discourse analytic investigations

into EU committees such as the Competitiveness Advisory Group (Wodak, 2000a, b; Wodak et al. 2011).

The interdependence of front-stage and backstage becomes truly apparent in these studies; moreover, it becomes obvious how much is decided on backstage and how negotiations and compromises are staged and enacted thereafter on front-stage.

Pragmatic–linguistic expertise becomes salient in the discourse analysis of daily (political) interactions: much knowledge is regularly presupposed in every interaction (Goffman, 1981; Wodak, 2009a: 45ff.). Misunderstandings occur when presuppositions or other indirect pragmatic devices either are not available or differ significantly. Sharing presupposed and inferred meanings and hence including or excluding others in strategic ways is, I believe, constitutive of political power play and of achieving one's aims in the political arena (Jäger and Maier 2009).

The discourse-historical approach

DHA provides a vehicle for looking at latent power dynamics and the range of potential in agents, because it integrates and triangulates knowledge about historical, inter-textual sources and the background of the social and political fields within which discursive events are embedded. Moreover, the DHA distinguishes between three dimensions that constitute textual meanings and structures: the topics that are spoken/ written about; the discursive strategies employed; and the linguistic means that are drawn upon to realize both topics and strategies (e.g. argumentative strategies, topoi, presuppositions – see below for an extensive discussion).

Systematic qualitative analysis in the DHA takes four layers of context into account: the inter-textual and inter-discursive relationships between utterances, texts, genres and discourses; the extra-linguistic social/sociological variables; the history and archaeology of texts and organizations; and institutional frames of the specific context of a situation (the specific episodes under investigation). In this way we are able to explore how discourses, genres and texts change due to socio-political contexts, and with what effects (see Wodak, 2001).

Furthermore, two concepts are salient for analyzing the backstage of politics: inter-textuality refers to the linkage of all texts to other texts, both in the past and in the present. Such links can be established in different ways: through continued reference to a topic or to its main actors; through reference to the same events as the other texts; or through the reappearance of a text's main arguments in another text. The second important process is labeled contextualization. By taking an argument, a topic, a genre or a discursive practice out of context and restating/realizing it in a new context, we first observe the process of de-contextualization, and then, when the respective element is implemented in a new context, of contextualization. The element then acquires a new meaning, because, as Wittgenstein (1967) demonstrated, meanings are formed in use.

Politics as usual: perspectives and limitations

Common sense supposes that politicians are very well organized, in spite of the many urgent and important events they must deal with, which have an impact on all our lives. We all have

cognitive models (event models, experience models, context models: van Dijk, 2008), which quickly and automatically update, distinguish, comprehend and store such events. From this we might assume that politicians also regularly access their own set of cognitive models for ‘doing politics’ in order to respond rapidly, in a rational and quite predictable way, to the various events they encounter.

However, this is in fact not the case as the everyday life of politicians is as much filled with accident, coincidence and unpredictability as it is filled with well-planned, strategic and rational action. Chaotic situations are a necessary feature of ‘politics as usual’; experienced politicians simply know how to cope with them better thus there is ‘order in the disorder’ (Wodak, 1996, 2009), established *inter alia* through routines, norms and rituals. Politicians have acquired strategies and tactics to pursue their agenda more or less successfully. The ‘successes depend on their position in the field, on their power relations and, most importantly, on what I label knowledge management: much of what we perceive as disorder depends on inclusion in shared knowledge or exclusion from shared knowledge.

Hans provides some important answers to the questions posed above which, again, could be generalized to other political realms. Hans employs both strategic and tactical knowledge when trying to convince various audiences of his political agenda. These discursive strategies and tactics also structure his day, which might otherwise seem totally chaotic from the outside, or much ritualized and bureaucratic oriented, for **example**, solely towards the drafting and redrafting of documents. Hans knows the ‘rules of the game’, he hesitates between a range of communities of practice in very well planned and strategic ways, he employs a wide range of genres suited to the immediate context in order to push his agenda, and thus possesses a whole repertoire of genres and modes which he applies in functionally adequate ways for the range of multimodal modes employed in bureaucracies and political institutions.

In sum: I argue, is how politics works; that is, how politicians work. Hans, as a small-scale policy entrepreneur, does political work; however, as citizens are excluded from the backstage and the many communities of practice where Hans implements his strategies and pushes his agenda these activities and practices remain invisible. Of course, this is not only the case for one MEP; this is generally true for the field of politics as a whole. To challenge the democratic deficit, at the very least, information about daily political work would need to be made more publicly accessible to a certain degree.

Lecture-11

Discourse and Phonology

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND PHONOLOGY

Pronunciation and rhythm

Under the heading of phonology in this chapter we shall take a brief look at what has traditionally been thought of as 'pronunciation', but devote most of our attention to intonation. This is partly because the most exciting developments in the analysis of discourse have been in intonation studies rather than at the segmental level (the study of phonemes and their articulation) and partly because intonation teaching, where it has taken place, has proceeded on the basis of assumptions that are open to challenge from a discourse analyst's viewpoint.

Traditional pronunciation teaching has found its strength in the ability of linguists to segment the sounds of language into isolated items called phonemes which, when used in the construction of words, produce meaningful contrasts with other words (e.g. the phonemes /p/ and /b/ in English give us contrasts such as pump and bump, pat and bat, .etc.), The position and manner of articulation of phonemes in a language like English are well described and can be presented and practiced in language classes either as isolated sounds, in words, in contrasting pairs of words or in minimal contexts.

Such features will probably long remain the stock-in-trade of pronunciation teaching and, if well done, can undoubtedly help learners with difficulties. When words follow one another in speech, phonemes may undergo considerable changes. Good advanced learners of English use assimilations and elisions naturally, but a surprising number of quite advanced learners continue to articulate the citation-form phonemes of English words in casual, connected speech.

This will not usually cause problems of communication but is undoubtedly a contributing factor in 'foreign accent', and there may be a case for explicit intervention by the teacher to train students in the use of the most commonly occurring assimilations and elisions by practicing pronunciation in (at least minimal) contexts. Alternatively, the answer may be to tackle the problem simultaneously from a 'top-down' and 'bottom up' approach, on the premise that articulation, rhythmically (see below) and intonation are inextricably linked, and that good intonation will have a wash-back effect on articulation in terms of reduced and altered articulations of individual phonemes, alongside the specific teaching of phonemes and the most common altered and reduced forms.

Current Question

When we listen to a stretch of spoken English discourse, we often feel that there is a **rhythm** or regularity to it, which gives it a characteristic sound, different from other languages and not always well-imitated by foreign learners. The impression of rhythm may arise out of a feeling of alternation between strong and weak 'beats'. **Traditionally, rhythm** has been considered an important element in the teaching of spoken English. This is probably due to two main factors.

Firstly, there does seem to be rhythmically in varying degrees in long stretches of speech, especially carefully considered deliveries such as broadcast talks, fluent reading aloud, speeches and monologues, as well as some ordinary conversation. Secondly, the concept of English as a stress-timed language, deeply rooted in theoretical and applied linguistics, has dominated approaches to the teaching of rhythm.

Word stress and prominence

At this point, it is useful to change our terminology slightly and introduce the term prominence. Syllables which stand out in the flow of talk will be referred to as prominent syllables. It is because the speaker has uttered them with relatively greater intensity, or duration, or pitch variation compared with surrounding syllables (and our perception of this phenomenon will usually be due to a variety of such features). It is helpful to have this special term, prominence, so as not to confuse word stress, which words bear in their citation forms (sometimes called their isolate pronunciations), with what concerns us most here: the choice of the speaker to make certain words salient by giving prominence to syllables. This is therefore a more precise use of the term prominence than is found in some sources (e.g. Cruttenden 1986).

Word stress, as it is traditionally understood, and **prominence**, as we shall use it here, are two distinct levels. Where they overlap, of course, is in the fact that prominences may not be distributed just anywhere in the word, but may only fall on certain syllables. Where two prominences can occur in the same word, as is often the case with a whole class of words such as **I**Apan**E**SE, UN**i**VER**s**al, conGR**A**tu**L**Ations, etc., the second will always be the stronger.

Stress is a large topic and despite the fact that it has been extensively studied for a very long time, there remain many areas of disagreement or lack of understanding. So, it is important to consider what factors make a syllable count as stressed. Stress is basically a prominence of syllable in terms of loudness, length, pitch and quality and all of them work together in order to make a syllable stressed. As discussed above, two types of stress are important. Firstly, stress on a syllable within a word (the lexical stress) which changes the grammatical category of a word (compare **insult** with **insult**) and also change meaning among other things. On the other hand, stress on a word or certain words in a phrase or sentence. This type of stress (on word(s) within sentences) is called sentence level or prosodic stress. This is, in fact, a change or modification to word level stress in a sentence which is basically a change of ‘beat’ on certain words in a sentence. Remember that, we create ‘rhythm’ in spoken language on the basis of stress. Analyze the following examples (stressed words are shown in bold):

*Mary's younger **brother** wanted **fifty** chocolate **peanuts**.*

So, what is happening here in this sentence is about the distinguishing degree of emphasis which is used for creating contrast in sentences or lines of verse. The question is: why do we create this

difference? This takes place in order to differentiate in environment – superimposition of intonation (degree of prominence) and it is also the part of the formality of a language.

For the learner of English, information about which syllables may be prominent is useful; it is a natural part of the lexical competence of native speakers. In this regard, the traditional distinction between primary stress and secondary stress (see above) may be misleading, and it may be more helpful simply to indicate to the learner which syllables are prominent. Otherwise, the learner may be misled into thinking that primary and secondary stress must be maintained at all costs.

Current Question

Intonational units

Intonation units are an important component of American English pronunciation and speech.

An **intonation unit** is a segment of speech. It can be as small as a single word, or as long as a sentence. Two sentences with identical grammatical structure may be comprised of differing numbers of intonation units when spoken, based on the intent or emotional state of the speaker. It's important to learn to distinguish these units because they give subtle meanings and help organize a conversation. There is no single determiner as to where intonation units begin and end or how many a single sentence contains, but there are clues. **Generally, intonation units:**

- begin with faster speech, and end with slower speech
- include a single pitch word
- end with a pitch boundary

Intonation units and emotion

Individual speakers alter the number of intonation units they use. Some of this is based on individual patterns and habits, but speakers also alter intonation units based on emotion. A faster speaker will generally use fewer intonation units and may be seen as being more urgent, frantic, excited, and anxious. A slower speaker may have more intonation units and may be perceived as being more emphatic, determined, and insistent. Of course, these are the extremes, and most people normally speak somewhere in the middle range.

Elements of intonation units

Sentences can often be broken up into multiple intonation units. Each intonation unit usually has a single pitch word and ends in a pitch boundary. Each pitch word conveys information to the listener, and each pitch boundary helps organize how speakers take turns speaking.

Similar sentences can have a different number of intonation units. The end of each intonation unit is marked with a hash (/) and the pitch words are bolded. Notice that the speaker with fewer intonation units spoke faster, with fewer pauses, and with fewer changes in pitch during the statement. The sentence with more intonation units sounds more emphatic and deliberate about what is being said. More intonation units can cause the entire conversation to occur more slowly.

Speakers tend to match each other's English rhythm, so if one speaker has a more emphatic rhythm, it is likely that other speakers will mirror it.

Brown and her associates are concerned with how speakers manage large stretches of interaction, in terms of turn-taking and topic-signaling and how speakers use pitch level to interact. For instance, there seems to be a direct correlation in English between the beginning of a new topic in speech and a shift to a higher pitch.

Turn-taking is another important aspect of pitch level in this view of intonation. The speaker can signal a desire to continue a speaking turn by using non-low pitch, even at a point where there is a pause, or at the end of a syntactic unit, such as a clause. Equally, a down-step in pitch is often a good turn-yielding cue. The intonational cues interact with other factors such as syntax, lexis, non-verbal communication and the context itself, and are typical of how the different levels of encoding have to be seen as operating in harmony in a discourse-oriented view of language (Schaffer 1983).

HALLIDAY'S SIX IDEATIONAL METAFUNCTION

Michael Halliday, the founder of systemic functional linguistics, calls these three functions the **ideational**, **interpersonal**, and **textual**. The **ideational** function is further divided into the experiential and logical. For this reason, systemic linguists analyze a clause from three perspectives. In Halliday's SFL, language as a social phenomenon is functional .i.e. it is concerned with the mechanism of text structure, function and meaning of language. It begins an analysis of language in social context where a particular lexico-grammatical choice is constructed under the influence of the social and cultural context.

Ideational and Experiential Function

Ideational Meta-function: Ideational meta-function provides grammatical resources at clause rank to construe the inner and outer experience or 'goings-on' of the world, as the domain of functions and meanings of the world through the systems of transitivity. It has two components of logical and experiential functions.

- **The concept of Transitivity:**

In traditional grammar, transitivity was developed as the concept of transitive or intransitive verb (Halliday, 1976) whether the verb takes an object or not, but in SFL it functions to link grammar to the meta functions; however, in Halliday's terms, transitivity as a major component in experiential function of the clause deals with the "transmission of ideas "representing 'processes' or 'experiences': actions, events, processes of consciousness and relations" (1985). It is a semantic system to analyze representations of reality in a linguistic text and create the same experience through various lexico-grammatical options influenced by different mind styles or authorial ideology. (Fowler, 1986).

It manifests how certain choices encode the author's certain ideological stance affected by social and cultural institution because according to Fowler these linguistic codes cannot reflect reality neutrally and definitely embody ideologies. (1986) It also functions as a rich analytic tool utilized in critical discourse analysis, dealing with "who or what does what to whom or what?" where actor, action and goal as affected are highlighted. Transitivity with inter-related options to represent different types of process or experience investigated from above, below, and around consists of process, participant with different labels such as Actor, Goal; Sensor, Phenomenon; Carrier, Attribute; and circumstance including Cause, Location, Manner, Means and Instrument. Process refers to a semantic verb (doing, happening, feeling, sensing, saying, behaving, and existing) and anything that it expresses like event, relation, physical, mental or emotional state when sorted in the semantic system of the clause is classified into material, relational, mental, verbal, behavioral, and existential processes. (Halliday, 1976)

- **Material Process**

Classified into intentional or spontaneous performance of an animate or inanimate, material processes, externalized and concrete embody an action verb of doing or happening, a doer is

labeled as Actor and optional Goal, affected by the process and circumstance that provides details of the verb in terms of place, time, manner, condition, etc.

- **Mental Process**

Classified into three categories of cognition, perception and affection, mental processes, internalized and consciousness type, are concerned with participants labeled as Sensor and Phenomenon. Mental processes can be viewed from:

'From above', it construes perception, cognition and affection

'From below', it includes Process + Sensor + Phenomenon

'From around', it manifests the content of consciousness such as a thought

- **Relational Process**

Classified into intensive, attributive, identifying, circumstantial, and possessive, Relational processes are concerned with the processes of description regarding the abstract relations.

Irreversible attributive process assigns a quality, or adjective to a participant titled as Carrier realized by a noun or a nominal phrase. Reversible Identifying process consists of two nominal phrases as participants, a Token holder and a Value meaning, referent, and status (Halliday, 1985) that can be turned into passive voice.

- **Verbal Process**

5th Slide: A verbal process of direct or indirect report, standing on the border of mental and relational processes, relates “any kind of symbolic exchange of meaning” (Halliday, 1985:129) or the ideas in human consciousness with their linguistic representation of Sayer, the addressee labeled as Target, and Verbiage.

- **Behavioral Process**

The behavioral Process standing between material and mental processes relate the physiological and psychological behaviors such as ‘breathing; coughing; smiling; dreaming; and staring.’ (1985)

- **Existential process**

These processes are processes of existing with a there and to be with no representational function. An Existent can be an entity, event or action.

Impersonal and Logical Function

Grammatically, **interpersonal meta-function** at the clausal level enjoys Mood. Mood is concerned with the topic of information or service and whether it is giving or demanding and the tenor of the relationship between interactants. **Tenor deals with gender or status-based power.** Muir (1972:92) and Halliday (1981:30) define Mood parallel to interpersonal communication which embraces three grammatical categories of speech function, modality and tone. The interpersonal meta-function concentrates on social roles and relations through formality degree, pronouns, clausal mood (whether declarative, imperative or interrogative), etc.

In interpersonal meta-function, the degree of intimacy or distance and the type of the relationship between the writer and reader or participants in a text through the type of modality can be

explored; besides, the system of pronominal determination describes how a referent can be recognized through the stances of the referent regarding the speaker and listener.

The Mood element constituted by the Subject and the Finite (auxiliary or lexical verb) and the remainder of the clause as the Residue, determine the mood of a clause as verbal group. Hence, the order Subject+Finite establishes the mood as declarative, while the order Finite+ Subject establishes the mood as interrogative. In a system network, a clause can be declarative or interrogative with Wh or yes-no format including material, mental, verbal, relational, or existential processes.

In terms of finite verb, subject and tense choice, SFL helps us express the speech functions such as persuading, enticing, motivating, demanding, inviting, ordering, proposing, recommending, confirming, persisting, and denying through a set of Mood clause systems. Through the scale of delicacy (level of detail and particularity) in the mood system, a clause can be indicative or imperative.

Indicative clauses are classified into interrogative and declarative; besides the element of tagging can be explored here.

(Sethe was sick) (Who is she? Is she a ghost in a body?) (He comes back, doesn't he?)

(Listen to me, will you?) (Let's move out of this place, shall we?)

Speech-functional roles help meaning to be achieved through Mood such as statement or question requesting, commanding and offering. Semantic dimensions of functions such as declaration dealing with information exchange (statement), asking information (question), and demanding service (commands) are omnipresent in every language while the structure, organization, degree and realizations of delicate choices differ from one language to another. For every grammatical category, there are different realizations. Interactants are involved in a conversation with indicating, demanding, and evaluating responses and information through the degree of probability. Metaphorically, a command can be regarded as a statement or a question. Sethe should/ must /will give her daughter freedom. Would she ask him to stay?

Textual function and References

Grammatically, textual meta-function at the clausal level enjoys Theme. Thematic structure is concerned with Theme, and Rhyme, or the old and new information structure or topic and comment where any component in a clause like Subject, Predicator, Complement or circumstantial Adjunct can be topicalized and be placed in thematic position or the beginning of the clause which is more significant than other locations in a sentence. Muir (1972) proposes "the thematic element in a clause is the first element which results from choice. "According to Halliday (1981:330) theme includes the message in a text, indicating the identity of text relations. Topic comes first and after that Comment appears to expand, justify and provide additional information to preceding information.

The clause acts as a message in the thematic statuses of Theme and Rhyme in terms of the local and spatial position in a sequence where Theme takes the initial position whether marked or unmarked and rhyme the non-initial position. The information flows like a wave in a sentence from thematic top to thematic bottom which can be accompanied by rising or falling intonation. Theme slides toward Rhyme and given information toward New to reveal the location of information prominence.

- **Cohesion:**

Cohesion, the “non-structural text-forming relations” (Halliday and Hasan 1976) relates to the “semantic ties” or relations of meaning within text. The cohesive devices of referencing, substitution, ellipsis, conjunction, and lexical cohesion were presented by Halliday and Hasan (1976) and Bloor and Bloor (1995)

- **Referencing**

Classified into homophoric, exophoric and endophoric categories respectively referring to cultural shared information, immediate situation context, and textual information, referencing identifies presupposed information throughout the text. (Egins 1994) Endophoric referencing divided into anaphoric, cataphoric, and esphoric respectively refers to the previously mentioned (preceding) information in text, information presented later in the text, the same nominal group or phrase following the presupposed item. (Halliday and Hasan 1976). There are also personal, demonstrative, and comparative references referring to speech situation noun pronouns like he, him or possessive determiners like mine and yours, this, here, there, then, same, equal, so, similarly, and otherwise.

- **Substitution and Ellipsis**

In Bloor and Bloor (1995: 96), substitution and ellipsis are used to avoid the repetition of a lexical item through grammatical resources of the language. The substitution and ellipsis can be nominal, verbal and clausal. Substitution words have the same function such as “one and ones” for nouns and “do” or “so” as in “do so” or “that and “it” for verbal, nominal, and clausal substitutions. Functioning at the level of deictic, enumerative, epithet, classifier, and qualifier, ellipsis as “substitution by zero” refers to a presupposed anaphoric item through structural link.

- **Lexical Cohesion**

Lexical cohesion is non-grammatical and refer to the “cohesive effect achieved by the selection of vocabulary” like reiteration where a lexical item directly or indirectly occurs through application of synonym, antonym, metonym, or hyponym or a super-ordinate and collocation where pair of same event or environment lexical items co-occur or found together within the text. When these lexical items are closer, the text enjoys higher degree of cohesion.

Lecture-12

Discourse, Vocabulary and Grammar

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND VOCABULARY-I

Lexical cohesion

In text, lexical cohesion is the result of chains of related words that contribute to the continuity of lexical meaning. These lexical chains are a direct result of units of text being "about the same thing," and finding text structure involves finding units of text that are about the same thing.

Bringing a discourse dimension into language teaching does not by any means imply an abandonment of teaching vocabulary. Vocabulary will still be the largest single element in tackling a new language for the learner and it would be irresponsible to suggest that it will take care-of itself in some ideal world where language teaching and learning are discourse-driven. Therefore, in this chapter we shall look at research into vocabulary in extended texts in speech and writing and consider if anything can be usefully exploited to give a discourse dimension to vocabulary teaching and vocabulary activities in the classroom. Most are already in agreement that vocabulary should, wherever possible, be taught in context, but context is a rather catch-all term and what we need to do at this point is to look at some of the specific relationships between vocabulary choice, context (in the sense of the situation in which the discourse is produced) and co-text (the actual text surrounding any given lexical item). The suggestions we shall make will be offered as a supplement to conventional vocabulary teaching rather than as a replacement for it.

It is debatable whether **collocation properly belongs to the notion of lexical cohesion**, since collocation only refers to the probability that lexical items will co-occur, and is not a semantic relation between words. Here, therefore, we shall consider the term 'lexical cohesion' to mean only exact repetition of words and the role played by certain basic semantic relations between words in creating textuality, that property of text which distinguishes it from a random sequence of unconnected sentences. We shall consequently ignore collocation associations across sentence boundaries as lying outside of these semantic relations.

Lexical reiteration can be shown to be a significant feature of textuality, and then there may be something for the language teacher to exploit. We shall not suggest that it be exploited simply because it is there, but only if, by doing so, we can give learners meaningful, controlled practice and the hope of improving their text-creating and decoding abilities, and providing them with more varied contexts for using and practicing vocabulary.

Reiteration means either restating an item in a later part of the discourse by direct repetition or else reasserting its meaning by exploiting lexical relations. Lexical relations are the stable semantic relationships that exist between words and which are the basis of descriptions given in dictionaries and thesauri: for example, rose and flower are related by hyponymy; rose is a hyponym of flower.

1) Repetition

The most direct form of lexical cohesion is repetition of a lexical item; e.g., bear in sentence Algy met a bear. The bear was bulgy (Halliday, 1985). Here the second occurrence of bear harks back to the first.

2) Synonym or near – synonym

Synonym is used to mean ‘sameness of meaning’ (Palmer, 1981). Lexical cohesion results from the choice of a lexical item that is in some sense synonymous with a preceding one; for example, sound with noise.

3) Superordinate

Superordinate is term for words that refer to the upper class itself (Palmer, 1981). In contrary, term for words that refer to the lower class itself is hyponym. **For example:** Henry’s bought himself a new Jaguar. He practically lives in the car (Halliday and Hasan, 1976) Here, car refers back to Jaguar; and the car is a superordinate of Jaguar.

4) General Word

The general words, which correspond to major classes of lexical items, are very commonly used with cohesive force. They are on the borderline between lexical items and substitutes. Not all general words are used cohesively; in fact, only the nouns are when it has the same referent as whatever it is presupposing, and when it is accompanied by a reference item (Halliday and Hasan, 1976: 280-1). **For example:** There’s a boy climbing the old elm. That old thing isn’t very safe (Halliday and Hasan, 1976: 280). Here, the reiteration takes the form of a general word thing.

Textual aspects of lexical competence

Prior to undertaking the concept of lexical competence, it is worth defining what competence is and how it has been viewed so far. The term competence has generated substantial controversy in the field of general and applied linguistics (Chomsky, 1965; Hymes, 1972). The former regarded it as a pure grammatical competence, that is, “the speaker hearer’s knowledge of his language” and the latter observed that this competence was more related to communication: a normal child acquires knowledge of sentences not only as grammatical, but also as appropriate. He or she acquires competence as to when to speak, when not, and as to what to talk about with whom, when, where, in what manner. In short, a child becomes able to accomplish a repertoire of speech acts, to take part in speech events, and to evaluate their accomplishment by others (Hymes, 1972).

A somewhat different type of lexical relation in discourse is when a writer or speaker rearranges the conventional and well-established lexical relations and asks us, as it were, to adjust our usual conceptualizations of how words relate to one another for the particular purposes of the text in question. In one way or another, our expectations as to how words are conventionally used are disturbed. A simple example is the following extract from a review of a book on American military planning. Sometimes our expectations as to how words are conventionally used are

disturbed when the writers arrange usual lexical relations for particular purposes of the text. Example the depressing feature of Allen's documents is the picture which emerges of smart but stupid military planners, the equivalent of America's madder fundamentalists, happily playing the fool with the future of the planet. (The Guardian, 13 November 1987)

The depressing feature of Allen's documents is the picture which emerges of smart but stupid military planners, the equivalent of America's madder fundamentalists, happily playing the fool with the future of the planet. (The Guardian, 13 November 1987)

Here, two words, smart and stupid, frequently occurring in the language as antonyms, and therefore incompatible, are to be interpreted as compatible descriptions of the military experts. To do this we have to adjust our typical expectations of how the two words operate as a related pair. One reasonable interpretation would be that the -experts are clever ('smart') but morally reckless (stupid'); to interpret them as meaning 'intelligent but unintelligent' would clearly be a nonsense.

Vocabulary and the organizing text

A distinction is often made between grammar words and lexical words in language. This distinction also appears sometimes as **function words** versus **content words**, or **empty words** versus **full words**. The distinction is a useful one: it enables us to separate off those words which belong to closed systems in the language and which carry grammatical meaning, from those that belong to open systems and which belong to the major word classes of noun, verb, adjective and adverb. This, that, these and those in English belong to a closed system (as do the pronouns and prepositions) and carry the grammatical meaning of 'demonstratives'. Monkey, sculpture, noise and toenail belong to open-ended sets, which are often thought of as the 'creative' end of language. In between these two extremes is another type of vocabulary that has recently been studied by discourse analysts, a type that seems to share qualities of both the open and the closed-set words.

McCarthy and McCarthy and Carter introduce the concept of discourse-organizing words whose job in the text is to organize and structure the arguments, rather than answer for its content or field. Some of this discourse-organizing vocabulary consists of words that act as pronouns in the way that they refer in the text to some other part of the text. They include such words, as issue, problem, assessment, question, position, case, situation, etc.

Psychological correlate of a natural language is the notion of communicative competence as introduced by Hymes (1972). He explicitly states that communicative competence comprises "not only the ability to understand and interpret linguistic expressions, but also the ability to use these expressions in appropriate and effective ways according to the conventions of verbal interaction prevailing in a linguistic community". It seems natural to suppose that lexical competence, which could accordingly be defined as the ability to use words in appropriate and effective ways in verbal interaction, is part of communicative competence as defined above.

However, in current linguistic theory there has been an unfortunate tendency to concentrate on the particular analysis of lexical meaning in order to account for the structural properties of lexical items, while ignoring significant aspects of the use and behavior of lexemes in linguistic utterances.

The reasons behind this strategy may be the following:

From a purely grammar-designing perspective, all a linguistic model demands from the lexicon is the basic semantic and syntactic properties of lexical items which are necessary to use them in linguistic expressions. This has been captured in formal theories in standard lexical entries through thematic relations and predicate-argument structures, and, in FG, through classical predicate frames. Thus, from the point of view of the grammar system, many aspects of the meaning of a lexical item are simply irrelevant in the generation of a linguistic expression.

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND VOCABULARY-II

Signaling larger textual patterns

Winter (1977) shows that the relationship between clauses can be signaled by three types of vocabulary: Vocabulary 1 such as subordination; Vocabulary 2 such as sentence connectors; and Vocabulary 3 such as lexical items. The last one, Vocabulary 3 is crucial to understanding text organization, although his main concern is the operation of lexical signaling at the level of the paragraph.

He expresses as follows;

I have included the following five items which represent a larger clause relation in English. My reason for doing so is that these relations may sometimes exist as clause relations within the unit of the paragraph. The items are situation, problem, solution, observation, and evaluation. (Winter 1977)

Although he focuses on the function of vocabulary, this can also explain the structure of the text. For instance, 'crisis' implies that a sentence including it suggests a 'problem,' which will be discussed in the text, and the word 'decision' implies a 'solution' to it. In this way, particular words in a text can act as a signal to identify textual patterns. In other words, L2 learners can reach text organization through an understanding of how vocabulary functions.

It is, however, necessary to understand that identifying textual patterns should be influenced by the vocabulary size of each L2 learner. A poor command of vocabulary cannot make it possible for L2 learners to recognize that a certain word can be a signal to a textual property. Moreover, not only learning the meanings of each word, but also learning the cohesive relations of words is important in raising learners' consciousness to identify textual patterns. It is this cohesive relationship between 'crisis' and 'problem' which makes it possible to recognize that a sentence, containing the word 'crisis,' should suggest a problem. As a result, lexical knowledge can be considered to be an essential element in identifying textual patterns.

Textual patterns *Current Question*

There are mainly three patterns of text organization (McCarthy 1991; Holland and Johnson 2000):

- Problem-Solution
- General-Specific
- Claim Counter-claim (or Hypothetical-Real)

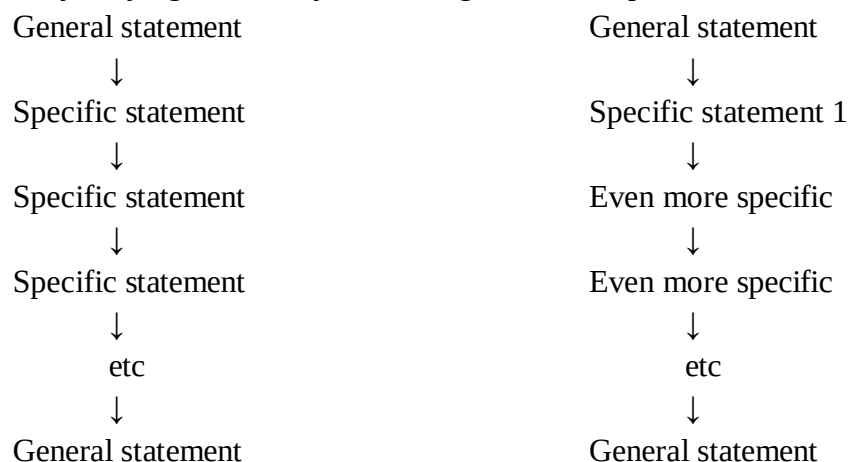
Here, each pattern of text organization shall be discussed, although Problem-Solution and General-Specific will be mainly used in the analysis.

Problem-Solution Pattern

Hoey (1994) introduces the main stream of discourse analysis structure. According to him, any genre of text, such as the plots of fairytales, or the writing of scientists, includes ‘the problem-solution structure’ (Hoey 1994: 27). He explains this by breaking a short passage consisting of four sentences, and rearranging the sentences in proper order without any signaling expressing a time sequence.

General-Specific Pattern

The basic structure of this pattern is that text includes “an initial general statement, followed by a series of (progressively) more specific statements, culminating in a further generalization” (Holland and Johnson 2000: 21). In a typical case, a passage including a general statement is followed by another passage, which expands the generalization, such as exemplifying, explaining, and/or justifying. McCarthy offers diagrammatic representations:



(McCarthy1991)

Claim-Counter-claim Pattern

The third textual pattern consists of a series of claims and contrasting counterclaims, which is presented on a given topic: Claim 1 → Counter-claim 1 → Claim 2 Counter-claim 2 → This pattern can be found more frequently “in political journalism, as well as in the letters-to-the editor pages of newspapers and magazines” (McCarthy 1991), and also “the stock-in-trade of many a ‘Compare and Contrast ...’ academic essay” (Holland and Johnson 2000: 23). For the purpose of identifying the textual pattern, lexical signals are very useful. For instance, through lexical items, such as claim, assert, truth, false, in fact, ‘segments’ containing them, can be identified as elements of the ‘Claim-Counter-claim’ structure.

Register and signaling vocabulary

In claiming that particular vocabulary items tend to cluster round certain elements of text patterns we are ignoring the important fact that register is closely tied to lexical selection. Among the signals of the problem element, we proposed problem, drawback and obstacle. Clearly, we might not expect to find problem occurring in this way in a formal scientific report, nor perhaps come up with as a marker for response (develop would be a more predictable

choice). Therefore, as in all matters, the relationship between vocabulary and register needs to be brought out when studying textual signaling.

Lexical choice within the identified clusters will depend on the context (textbook, magazine, news report, etc.), the author's assumptions about the audience (cultured/educated readers of the popular sensationalist press, etc.) whether the style is to be read as 'written' or 'spoken', and so on. Most of the texts we have looked at so far have been toward the 'written/formal/cultured' end of the spectrum. Mere **are two more, this time with a more informal, colloquial tone.** They are presented to illustrate the fact that discourse-signaling words need not necessarily be only rather 'dry' academic words taken from the Graeco-Latin vocabulary of English.

Idiomatic phrases are used as signals of the response and its occurrence after a previous negatively evaluated response (conventional treatments). Idioms are often a problem for the teacher inasmuch as it is not always easy to find natural contexts in which to present them. Research by Moon (1987) suggests that writers and speakers use idiomatic **phrases** to organize their discourse and to signal evaluation, far more frequently than previous **linguistic** studies of idiomaticity have suggested. Idioms are good metaphors for the kinds of **textual** segments we have been looking at (problem/response, etc.).

Modality

The term modality“ subsumes a range of concepts within the fields of philosophy, morphology, syntax, semantics, and discourse analysis. Philosophy deals with modality primarily as it applies to categories of logic and to logical reasoning, and while some of the terminology used in philosophical studies of modality is borrowed into other disciplines, these terms are not always **used in the same ways or for the same purposes in other disciplines. As Sulkunen and Törrönen explain, for linguists, the logical treatment of modalities is too narrow, because it is centered on truth values of propositions. Linguistic analysis of modalities presents much more diversity in its problematic and approaches“ (1997).** For their part, linguistic studies of modality can be located in a variety of linguistic sub-disciplines.

Specifically, morphology describes the lexical forms in which modality is manifested in different languages, syntax describes the complex syntactic configurations in which modality may be manifested, and semantics identifies modal meanings and explores the variety of ways these meanings may be expressed morphologically, syntactically, phonologically, and pragmatically. This paper, however, takes a discourse analytic approach, specifically a critical discourse analytic approach, employing the concept of modality to characterize the political orientation of two sample texts.

Within critical discourse analysis, modality is understood as encompassing much more than simply the occurrence of overt modal **auxiliaries such as may, might, can, could, will, would,**

shall, should, must, and ought. Rather, modality concerns the writer's (or speaker's) attitude toward and/or confidence in the proposition being presented. In Halliday's system, modality is primarily located in the interpersonal component of the grammar and choices in this component are independent of grammatical choices in other components, for example, choices of transitivity in the ideational component (Halliday 2002a: 200).

Although there are broad categories of modality recognized by all scholars in the field, there are nevertheless differences in the ways in which modalities are classified and categorized. For example, linguist Otto Jespersen (1924) makes a broad division of modalities into two categories: those that contain an element of will and those that contain no element of will. Philosopher Georg von Wright (1951) postulates 4 modes: alethic (necessary, possible, contingent, impossible), epistemic (verified, undecided, falsified), deontic (obligatory, permitted, indifferent, forbidden), and existential (universal, existing, empty).

Palmer (1986) focuses on epistemic and deontic modalities, which corresponding roughly with Jespersen's two categories, while Palmer (2001) reorganizes categories of modality such that the first division is between Propositional modality on the one hand, encompassing both epistemic and evidential modality, and Event modality on the other hand, encompassing both deontic and dynamic modality. Propositional modality is concerned with the speaker's attitude to the truth value or factual status of the proposition, while Event modality refers to events that are not actualized, events that have not taken place but are merely potential (Palmer 2001).

Lesson 35

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND GRAMMAR-I

Reference

Reference items in English usually include pronouns (e.g. *he, she, it, him, they*, etc.), demonstratives (this, that, these, those), and the article *the*. For instance,

Michael went to the bank. **He** was annoyed because **it** was closed.

In this sentence, he refers to Michael which will be treated as a anaphoric reference, and **it** refers to the bank which will also be treated as an anaphoric reference. In the above given examples, **Michael** and **bank** will be treated as **cataphoric reference**. Hence, an anaphoric reference occurs when a word or phrase refers to something mentioned **earlier** in the discourse, whereas a cataphoric reference occurs when a word or phrase refers to something mentioned **later** in the discourse.

Brown and Yule (1983) see the nature of reference in text and in discourse as an action on the part of a speaker/writer. It describes what they are doing “not the relationship which exists between one sentence or proposition and another.” McCarthy (1991) states that we must consider the notion of discourse segments as “functional units, rather than concentrating on sentence and to see the writer/speaker as faced with a number of strategic choices as to how to relate segments to one another and how to present them to the receiver.” He adds that reference items can refer to Segments of discourse or situations as a whole rather than to any one specified entity in that situation. Fox (1987) claims that reference can be successfully made (for instance, through the use of pronouns) if the referent is “in focus, in consciousness, textually evoked or high in topicality” and where it “can be operationally defined in terms of the discourse structure.”

Current Question

To this end, referents are often realized through anaphoric (word or phrase referring backwards in a text), cataphoric (word or phrase referring forwards in a text), and exophoric (reference to assumed shared worlds outside the text) devices and can appear as functional units in discourse segmentation.

This implies the use of language to point to something. Reference therefore has the ability to point to something within or outside a text.

Halliday and Hassan (1976) states that co-referential forms are forms which instead of being interpreted semantically in their own right, make reference to something else for their interpretation. When the interpretation is within the text, this is an „endophoric“ relation but in a situation where the interpretation of the text lies outside the text, in the context of situation, the relationship is „exophoric“. However, **exophoric relations play no part in textual cohesion**. Endophoric relations on the other hand, form cohesive ties within the text. Endophoric relations are also of two types, those which look back in the text for their interpretation (anaphoric

relations) and those which look forward to the text for their interpretation (cataphoric relations). For instance, the following sentences show the use of reference. Referring expressions help to unify the text and create economy because they save writers from unnecessary repetition.

Ellipsis and substitution

In English grammar, substitution (or an ellipsis-substitution) is the replacement of a word or phrase with a "filler" word (such as one, so, or do) to avoid repetition.

1. Avoiding repetition of nouns in formal situation using 'THAT/ THOSE'

e.g.

- There are people who support this idea just as there are **those** who are against it.
- They perform **an essential function: that** of reminding us of the human cost when we get things wrong.

2. Avoiding repetition of nouns in informal situation using 'ONE/ ONES'

'One' is used instead of repeating a singular countable noun.

e.g.

- Can I get you a drink? It's okay, I've already got **one** (= a drink).
- Is this your umbrella? No, mine is the big blue **one** (= umbrella).

'Ones' is used instead of repeating a plural noun.

e.g.

- I think his best poems are his early **ones** (= poems).
- People who smoke aren't the only **ones** (= people) affected by lung cancer.

3. Avoiding repetition of a verb and its object complement using 'DO SO'

e.g.

- "Put the car away, please." "I've already **done so**." (= put the car away)
- She won the competition on 1997 and seems likely to **do so** (= win the competition) again this year.

In **Informal English** we can use '**do it**' or '**do that**'.

e.g.

- Mrs. Smith waved as she walked past. She **does it/ does that** every morning.
- Ray told me to put in a new battery. I **did it/ did that**, but the radio still doesn't work.

4. Avoiding repetition of a that-clause after certain verbs (think, hope, believe, suppose, reckon, guess, be afraid) using 'SO'

e.g.

"Our team will win today's match." "Yeah, I hope **so**." (= that our team will win today's match)

"Is Alex here?" "I think **so**." (= that Alex is here)

5. Joining two positive sentences which have different subjects using 'TOO/ SO'

e.g.

- I love fishing. My brother loves fishing.
- I love fishing and my brother does too.

- I love fishing and so does my brother.

6. Joining two negative sentences which have different subjects using 'EITHER/ NEITHER'

e.g.

- I don't like reading books. He doesn't like reading books.
- I don't like reading books and he doesn't either.
- I don't like reading books and neither does he.

"Ellipsis is a special instance of substitution, in that it involves substitution by zero. Instead of one of the lexical items mentioned for substitution, no item is used, and the hearer/listener is left to fill in the gap where the substitute item, or the original item, should have appeared."

1. Leaving out words after auxiliaries (do, be, have, modals)

e.g.

- I'll come and see you when I can. (= can come and see you)
- She says she has finished, but I don't think she has. (= has finished)

2. Leaving out to-infinitives

e.g.

- I wanted to come with you, I won't be able to. (= to come with you)
- "Let's go for a walk." "I don't want to." (=to go for a walk)

3. Leaving out articles, possessives, personal pronouns, auxiliaries at the beginning of sentences

e.g.

- My wife's on holiday. => *Wife's on holiday.*
- Have you seen Joe? => *Seen Joe?*
- I couldn't understand a word. => *Couldn't understand a word.*

The Differences between Reference and Substitution

"It is important to point out differences between reference and ellipsis-substitution. One difference is that reference can reach a long way back in the text whereas ellipsis and substitution are largely limited to the immediately preceding clause. Another key difference is that with reference there is a typical meaning of co-reference. That is, both items typically refer to the same thing. With ellipsis and substitution, this is not the case. There is always some difference between the second instance and the first. If a speaker or writer wants to refer to the same thing, they use reference. If they want to refer to something different, they use ellipsis-substitution (Halliday 1985)."

Conjunction

Conjunctive elements are cohesive not in themselves but indirectly, by virtue of their specific meanings; they are not primarily devices for reaching out into the preceding (or following) text, but they express certain meaning which presuppose the presence of other components in the discourse (Halliday and Hasan, 1976). Hasan and Halliday (1976) adopt a scheme of just four

categories, namely additive, adversative, causal, and temporal. According to Halliday (1985), conjunction is classified into **elaboration, extension, and enhancement**.

1) Elaboration

Elaboration means one clause that expands another by elaborating on it (or some portion of it) by restating in other words, specifying in greater detail, commenting, or exemplifying (Halliday, 1985). There are two categories of elaborative relation, namely apposition and clarification.

- **Apposition**

According to Kridalaksana (1993) apposition is a word or phrase which explains other preceding phrase or clause. In this type of elaboration some element is re-presented, or restated, either by exposition or example. Look at the example below:

Expository: in other word, that is (to stay), I mean (to say), to put it another way.

Exemplifying: for example, for instance, thus, to illustrate.

- **Clarification**

Here, the elaborated element is not simply restated but reinstated, summarized, made more precise or in some other way clarified for the purposes of discourse:

- **Corrective:** *or, rather, at least, to be more precise*
- **Distractive:** *by the way, incidentally*
- **Dismissive:** *in any case, anyway, leaving that a side*
- **Particularizing:** *in particular, more especially*
- **Resumptive:** *as I was saying, to resume, to get back to the point*
- **Summative:** *in short, to sum up, in conclusion, briefly*
- **Verifactive:** *actually, as a matter of fact, in fact*

2) Extension

Extension means one clause expands another by extending beyond it by adding some new element, giving an exception to it, or offering an alternative (Halliday, 1985). Extension involves either addition, adversative, or variation. **Additive** conjunction acts to structurally coordinate or link by adding to the presupposed item divided into positive (*and, also, moreover, in addition*) and negative (*nor*). **Adversative** is conjunction which relates two clauses that state contrast each other (Kridalaksana, 1993). It acts also to indicate contrary to expectation and signaled by *but, yet, on the other hand, however*. **Variation** includes replacive 'instead', subtractive 'except' and alternative 'or' types.

- **Replacive:** *on contrary, instead*
- **Subtractive:** *apart from that, except*
- **Alternative:** *alternatively*

3) Enhancement

Enhancement means one clause expands another by embellishing around it by qualifying it with some circumstantial feature of time, place, cause or condition (Halliday, 1985).

DISCOURSE ANALYSIS AND GRAMMAR-II

Theme and rhyme

Most learners, when learning the grammar of a foreign language, spend time assimilating the structure of clauses in that language, i.e., where subjects, objects and adverbials are placed in relation to the verb, and what options are available for rearranging the most typical sequences. Discourse analysts are interested in the implications of these different structural options for the creation of text, and, as always, it is from the examination of natural data that patterns of use are seen to emerge. Some of the structural options frequently found in natural data are ignored or underplayed in language teaching (especially those found in spoken data, which are often dismissed as degraded or bad 'style'), probably owing to the continued dominance of standards taken from the written code. If the desire is to be faithful to data, grammar teaching may have to reorient some of its structural descriptions, while others already dealt with in sentence level exercises may be adequately covered in traditional teaching and simply adjusted to discourse-oriented approaches. English is what is often called an 'SVO' language, in that the declarative clause requires a verb at its center, a subject before it and any object after it. This is simply a labeling device which enables comparisons to be made with declarative realizations in different languages, some of which will be 'VSO' or 'SOV' languages.

There are in English a variety of ways in which the basic clause elements of subject, verb, and complement/object, adverbial can be rearranged by putting different elements at the beginning of the clause. These ways of bringing different elements to the front are called fronting devices.

In English the Theme, the 'point of departure' for the clause, is also one of the means by which the clause is organized as a message. Theme is the 'glue' that structures and binds the ideational and interpersonal meanings. In studies of Theme in children's writing and in writing in the workplace, the choice and representation of Theme is seen as a crucial element related to the success of a text (Martin, 1985, 1992, 1993; Martin and Rothery, 1993; Berry, 1995, 1996; Stainton, 1996, amongst others). The belief that an understanding of the way in which Theme works can be usefully incorporated into pedagogy is the motivation behind this and many other studies of Theme.

Theme, then, is seen to play a crucial role in focusing and organizing the message and to contribute to the coherence and success of the message. Martin (1992) argues that the choice of what comes first is "a textual resource systematically exploited" to effect different patterns (Martin, 1992). Martin adds that the different patterns and meanings made by the choice of Theme can be manipulated and exploited, consciously or unconsciously, by the writer in order to convey their 'angle' or viewpoint. In more recent work, Martin (2000) and Martin and Rose (forthcoming) suggest that Theme and many other features in a text function to construe the writer's viewpoint.

Rhyme is everything that is not Theme: it is the part of the clause where the Theme is developed (Halliday, 1994). A message structure in English is comprised of a Theme plus a **Rhyme**. There is an order to the structure: Theme comes first, followed by **Rhyme**, and whatever is placed in initial position is **Theme** (Halliday, 1994). In many instances **Rhyme** is related to New Information, while Theme is related to Given Information. Given refers to what is already known or predictable, while New refers to what is unknown or unpredictable.

Halliday elaborates the distinction between given and new as “information that is presented by the speaker as recoverable (Given) or not recoverable (New) to the listener” (Halliday, 1994). Martin (1992) also points out that **Theme** is equated with “what the speaker is on about” while New is the structure which is “listener-oriented” (Martin, 1992a:448). Halliday adds that although the two pairs of clause functions, i.e. **Theme/ Given** and **Rhyme/ New**, are similar, they are not the same thing. Theme realizes the ‘angle’ of the story and the New elaborates the field, developing it in experiential terms (Martin, 1992). Martin (1992) also adds that Theme is generally restricted to grounding the genre of the text, while the New is not restricted in this way and is far more flexible. As interesting as the interaction between these two pairs of concepts is, an investigation into Given and New is beyond the scope of the present study.

Tense and aspect

Tense is a term that refers to the way verbs change their form in order to indicate at which time a situation occurs or an event takes place. For finite verb phrases, English has just one inflectional form to express time, namely the past tense marker (-ed for regular verbs). Therefore, in English there is just a contrast between present and past tense. Needless to say, non-finite verb phrases (to infinitives and -ing forms) are not marked for tense. When occurring with modals, verb phrases are used in their base form, with no tense marker. Each tense can have a simple form as well as be combined with either the progressive or perfective aspect, or with both of them.

For instance,

- I work; I’m working; I have worked; I have been working (present)
- I worked; I was working; I had worked; I had been working (past)

Sentences can also be used in the passive voice (note that the perfect-progressive is not normally found in the passive):

- I am told; I’m being told; I have been told I was told
- I was being told; I had been told

Time and tense are not overlapping concepts. Though tense is related to time, there is no one-to-one correspondence between the two. Tense is a grammatical category: rather than with “reality”, it has to do with how events are placed, seen, and referred to along the past-present-future time line. Thus, a present tense does not always refer to present time, or a past tense to

past time. Actually, the present and past tenses can refer to all three segments of the time line (past, present, and future).

Furthermore, the past tense can express tentativeness, often associated with politeness:

- Did you want to make a phone call?
- Were you looking for me?

Aspect is a grammatical category that reflects the perspective from which an action/situation is seen: as complete, in progress, having duration, beginning, ending, or being repeated. English has two aspects, progressive (also called continuous) and perfect (ive). Verbs that are not marked for aspect (the majority of them are not) are said to have simple aspect. In British English, the perfective aspect is much more common than in American English, since Americans often use the past simple where Britons use the present perfect.

Verb phrases can be marked for both aspects at the same time (the perfect progressive, however, is infrequent). The following combinations are possible: present progressive; past progressive; present perfective; past perfective; present perfective progressive; past perfective progressive:

- He's sleeping;
- He was sleeping
- He has slept
- He had slept
- He has been sleeping
- He had been sleeping

Usually, grammars contrast the progressive with the perfective aspect (and the simple, for that matter) on the basis that the former refers to an action/event as in progress, while the latter tends to indicate the completeness of an action, to see actions and events as a whole and a situation as permanent. This is certainly a useful distinction, which will not be questioned here; yet students must be aware that the above is an oversimplified view, as is demonstrated by the fact that the two aspects can combine within a single verb phrase.

Conclusion

This chapter has taken a selection of grammatical concepts and has attempted to show how discourse analysis has contributed to our understanding of the relationship between local choices within the clause and sentence and the organization of the discourse as a whole. When speakers and writers are producing discourse, they are, at the same time as they are busy constructing clauses, monitoring the development of the larger discourse, and their choices at the local level can be seen simultaneously to reflect the concerns of the discourse as an unfolding production, with an audience, whether present or projected.

A discourse-oriented approach to grammar would suggest not only a greater emphasis on contexts larger than the sentence, but also a reassessment of priorities in terms of what is taught about such things as word order, articles, ellipsis, tense and aspect, and some of the other

categories discussed here. If grammar is seen to have a direct role in welding clauses, turns and sentences into discourse.

At the end, Discourse and grammar often complement each other, each imposing a different set of constraints on speakers' utterances. Discourse constraints are global, pertaining to text coherence, and/or to interpersonal relations. Grammatical constraints are local, pertaining to possible versus impossible structures (within specific languages). Yet, the two must meet in natural discourse. At every point during interaction speakers must simultaneously satisfy both types of constraints in order to communicate properly.

It is also during conversational interaction that language change somehow takes place. This overview first explains and exemplifies how discourse constraints guide addressees in selecting specific grammatical forms at different points in the interaction (discourse 'selecting' from grammar). It then examines the relationship between discourse and grammar from a grammatical point of view, demonstrating how a subset of discourse patterns (may) turn grammatical (grammar 'selecting' from discourse). The central theme is then that discourse depends on grammar, which in turn depends on discourse.

Lecture-13

The Nature of Reference in Text and Discourse

STAGING AND THE REPRESENTATION OF DISCOURSE STRUCTURE

Thematisation and Staging

According to Brown and Yule (1983), “**thematisation** is a discourse rather than simply a sentential process. What the speaker or writer puts first would influence the interpretation of everything that follows.” Thus, a title would influence the interpretation of the text which follows it. The first sentence of the first paragraph would constrain the interpretation not only of the paragraph, but also the rest of the text. That is, we assumed that every sentence forms part of a developing, cumulative instruction which told us how to construct a coherent representation.

“**Staging**” was a more general, more inclusive, term than thematisation (which refers only to the linear organization of texts). Every clause, sentence, paragraph, episode and discourse were organized around a particular element that is taken as its point of departure. It was as though the speaker presents what he wants to say from a particular perspective. Clements (1979) suggested that “staging is a dimension of prose structure which identifies the relative prominence given to various segments of prose discourse.” This definition opened the door to far more than processes of linearization, and permits the inclusion within “staging” of rhetorical devices like lexical selection, theme and rhyme, alliteration, repetition, use of metaphor, markers of emphasis, etc. It meant different structure or word construction would determine what the word which has prominent position in a sentence. We should use “staging” not as a technical term, but as a general metaphor to cover the exploitation of such varied phenomena in discourse.

The notion of “relative prominence” arising from processes of thematisation and “staging” devices has led many researchers, particularly in psycholinguistics, to consider staging as a crucial factor in discourse structure, because they believe, the way a piece of discourse is staged, must have a significant effect both on the process of interpretation and on the process of subsequent recall (Yule, 1983). Regarded with this, staging is the sentence arrangement that signals how the word, sentence is arranged in clause. The arrangement would influence the intended meaning of sentence. As Davidson states in Brown and Yule (1986), “the more marked the construction, the more likely that an implicated meaning will be intended utterance to convey.”

In discourse analysis, the term of staging is used to show how an idea is represented. The first sentence of a text or the first word of a sentence will influence the interpretation of everything that follows. Actually, in a sentence there is a particular word that called as foregrounded and another one is back-grounded. Other themes used in staging were theme and rhyme.

Thematic organization appears to be exploited by speakers / writers to provide a structural framework for their discourse, which relates back to their main intention and provides a

perspective on what follows. In the detective story cited in (8), the writer shuttles about, commenting on the activities of a number of different individuals, located in different parts of England and Europe within the space of two pages. The coherence of structure is imposed, partly at least, because locally within the text the author is meticulous in relating events to each other in time. Each new adverbial phrase marks the fact that the scenario has shifted.

Titles and Thematisation

We argued in this Chapter that the 'title' of a stretch of discourse should not be equated with 'the topic' but should be regarded as one possible expression of the topic. We now wish to propose that the best way of describing the function of the title of a discourse is as a particularly powerful thematisation device. In the title of extract the topic entity was thematised, or, to express the relationship more accurately, when we found the name of an individual thematised in the title of the text, we expected that individual to be the topic entity. This expectation-creating aspect of thematisation, especially in the form of a title, means that thematised elements provide not only a starting point around which what follows in the discourse is structured, but also a starting point which constrains our interpretation of what follows.

For instance, Rocky slowly got up from the mat, planning his escape. He hesitated a moment and thought. Things were not going well. What bothered him most was being held, especially since the charge against him had been weak. He considered his present situation. The lock that held him was strong, but he thought he could break it.

The topic-entity of this fragment is the individual named 'Rocky' and, because of the thematised expression in the title, we can read this text with the interpretation that Rocky is a prisoner, in a cell, planning to break the lock on the door and escape. In an exercise which the researchers conducted using this text after which subjects were asked to answer several questions, we found that there was a general interpretation that Rocky was alone, that he had been arrested by the police, and that he disliked being in prison.

When the researchers presented exactly the same questions to another group who read the following text, (17b), they received quite different answers.

(17b) A Wrestler in a Tight Corner

Rocky slowly got up from the mat, planning his escape. He hesitated a moment and thought. Things were not going well.

What bothered him most was being held, especially since the charge against him had been weak. He considered his present situation. The lock that held him was strong, but he thought he could break it.

In answering questions on this fragment, subjects indicated that they thought Rocky was a wrestler who was being held in some kind of wrestling 'hold' and was planning to get out of this hold.

Rocky was not alone in a prison cell and had had nothing to do with the police. By providing different 'starting points' in the thematised elements of the different titles, we effectively constrained the way in which the piece of text was interpreted. (Anderson et al. (1977) discuss the different possible interpretations of the one piece of text (without titles) presented in (17a) and (17b) in terms of knowledge structures or 'schemata' which are activated for the interpretation of texts.

Extracts (17a) and (17b) provide a particularly dramatic illustration of the effect of thematisation. There are, of course, many other easily recognizable thematisation devices used in the organization of discourse structure. Placing headings and sub-headings within a text is a common thematisation device in technical or public- information documents. It also occurs, you will have noted, in linguistics textbooks. What these thematisation devices have in common is not only the way they provide 'starting points' for paragraphs in a text, but also their contribution to dividing up a whole text into smaller chunks. This 'chunking' effect is one of the most basic of those achieved by thematisation in discourse.

Natural Order and Point of View

As Levelt (1981) remarks, it is natural to put the event that happened first before the event which followed it. A sequence of events in time, told as a narrative in English, will often be presented in the order in which they happened and, often, with an unspecified implication of a relationship in which the second event in some sense follows from the first (e.g. was caused by). This type of non-logical inference has been characterized by Horn (1973) as *post hoc ergo propter hoc*.

Consider the following passage. Just before it begins, a violent storm has broken, with torrents of rain:

Between where I stood by the rail and the lobby was but a few yards, yet I was drenched before I got under cover. I disrobed as far as decency permits, and then sat at this letter but not a little shaken. (W. Golding, *Rites of Passage*, Faber & Faber, 1980)

It is not stated that the narrator is 'drenched' by the rain (rather than by, say, perspiration) or why he wishes to get under cover.

It is not made clear why he disrobes or why he finds himself 'not a little shaken'. The normal assumption of an English-speaking reader will be, however, that the series of events are meaningfully related to each other, and he will draw the appropriate inferences that the narrator is drenched by the rain, wishes to take cover from the rain, disrobes because his clothing has been drenched by the rain, and is 'not a little shaken' because of his immediately preceding experience in the violent storm. We stress that these inferences will be drawn by an English-speaking reader because it appears that in other cultures there are rather different bases for narrative structures (cf. Grimes, 1975; Grimes (ed.), 1978; Becker, 1980).

It is clearly the case that there are stereotypical orderings in genres other than those which obviously consist of a series of events in time. Thus Linde & Labov report that 97% of the subjects, in a survey in which subjects were asked to describe the lay-out of their apartments, described them in terms of 'imaginary tours which transform spatial lay-outs into temporally organised narratives' (1975 : 924)

The narrative tour in each case begins at the front door, just as it would if the interviewer were to arrive for the first time at the apartment. A similar alignment with the point of view of the hearer is taken by speakers who are asked to give directions in a strange town. They always begin, co-operatively, from the point where the enquiry is made and then attempt to describe the route as a succession of acts in time.

In each of these cases then, there is a 'natural' starting point and the description is an attempt to follow a 'natural' progression. Levelt suggests that by adopting the stereotypical pattern of the culture 'the speaker facilitates the listener's comprehension' (1981: 94) since both speaker and hearer share the same stereotype.

It seems very likely that there are other constraints on ordering in types of discourse which are not simply arranged as a sequence of events in time. Van Dijk (1977) suggests that descriptions of states of affairs will be determined by perceptual salience so that the more salient entity will be mentioned first. He suggests that 'normal ordering' will conform to the following pattern:

General - particular

Whole - part / component

Set - subject - element

Including - included

Large - small

Outside - inside

Possessor - possessed

(van Dijk, 1977: 106)

THE NATURE OF REFERENCE IN TEXT AND IN DISCOURSE-III

What is text?

In linguistics, the term **text** refers to:

1. The original words of something written, printed, or spoken, in contrast to a summary or paraphrase.
2. A coherent stretch of language that may be regarded as an object of critical analysis.

Text linguistics refers to a form of discourse analysis a method of studying written or spoken language that is concerned with the description and analysis of extended texts (those beyond the level of the single sentence). A text can be any example of written or spoken language, from something as complex as a book or legal document to something as simple as the body of an email or the words on the back of a cereal box.

In **the humanities**, different fields of study concern themselves with different forms of texts. Literary theorists, for example, focus primarily on literary texts novels, essays, stories, and poems. Legal scholars focus on legal texts such as laws, contracts, decrees, and regulations. Cultural theorists work with a wide variety of texts, including those that may not typically be the subject of studies, such as advertisements, signage, instruction manuals, and other ephemera.

“Discourse is sometimes used in contrast with ‘text,’ where ‘text’ refers to actual written or spoken data, and ‘discourse’ refers to the whole act of communication involving production and comprehension, not necessarily entirely verbal. The study of discourse, then, can involve matters like context, background information or knowledge shared between a speaker and hearer.”

The concept of **texture** is entirely appropriate to express the property of ‘being a text’. This characteristic of a text distinguishes it from something that is not a text. The fact that a text functions as a unity with respect to its environment derives from this ‘texture’. If a passage of English containing more than one sentence is perceived as a text, there will be certain linguistic features present in the passage which can be identified as contributing to its total unity and giving it texture.

For example:

If we find the following instructions in the cooking book;
Wash and core six cooking apples. Put *them* into a fireproof dish.

It is clear that ‘them’ in the second sentence refers back to the ‘six cooking apples’ of the first sentence. This anaphoric function of *them* gives cohesion to the two sentences, so that we interpret them as a whole; the two sentences together constitute a text. So it is the texture which makes these two sentences a text.

Ties:

We need a term to refer to a single instance of cohesion, a term for one occurrence of a pair of cohesively related items. This is called a tie. The relation between *them* and *six cooking apples* in

the above example constitutes a tie. We can characterize any segment of a text in terms of the number and kinds of ties which it displays. In the above example there is just one tie of the particular kind which we call reference.

Cohesion:

The concept of cohesion is a semantic one. It refers to relations of meaning that exist within the texts, and that defines it as a text. Cohesion occurs where the interpretation of some element in the discourse is dependent on that of another. The one presupposes the other, in the sense that it cannot be effectively decoded except by recourse to it. When this happens, a relation of cohesion is set up and the two elements, the presupposing and the presupposed are thereby at least potentially integrated into a text.

Reference and Discourse Representation

Reference is an act of directing or indicating something by using some linguistic elements. Reference is a systemic relation. The reference is no way constrained to match the grammatical class of the item it refers to. Reference is a particular type of cohesion and its criteria is the specific nature of the information that is signaled for retrieval. In the case of reference, the information to be retrieved in the referential meaning' the identity of the particular thing or class of things that is being referred to; and the cohesion lies in the continuity of reference, whereby the same thing enters into the discourse for the second time.

Manners of Reference: on the basis of referring to a thing as identified in the context of situation or as identified in the surrounding text reference appears in **two forms or manners**.

- **Exophora or Exophoric reference.**
- **Endophora or endophoric reference**

Exophoric reference: Exophora is reference to something extra-linguistic, i.e., not in the same text. It signals that reference must be made to context of situation. For example; pronouns with words such as 'this' 'that' 'there' 'here' are often exophoric.

Did the gardener water those plants?

It is quite possible that 'those' refers to earlier mention of those particular plants in the discussion. But it is also possible that it refers to the environment in which the dialogue is taking place – to the context of situation; as It is called – where the plants in question are present and can be pointed to if necessary. The interpretation would be "those plants there, in front of us. This kind of reference is called exophora. Since it takes us put side the text altogether.

Exophoric reference is cohesive, since it does not bind the two elements together into a text. Example-

For he's a jolly good fellow and so say all of us.

This is an example of the context of situation where the text is not indicating who this 'he' is.

Endophoric Reference: Endophoric reference is the general name for within the text. Endophora is a term that means an expression which refers to something intra-linguistics i.e. in the same text. For example, in the sentence:

I saw sally yesterday, she was lying on the beach

Here, she is an endophoric expression because it refers to something already mentioned in the text i.e., *sally*.

By contrast she was lying on the beach if it appeared by itself, has an exophoric expression; she' refers to something that the reader is not told about. Without further information, there is no way of knowing the exact meaning of an exophoric term where endophoric expression lies within the text.

A theory of discourse interpretation that uses such an intermediate level of representation is **Discourse Representation Theory (DRT)**, formalism proposed in the early 1980s by Hans Kamp. **Discourse Representation Theory explain** certain discourse phenomena, such as the interaction between indefinite noun phrases and (anaphoric) pronouns in texts shown before, the traditional account of considering meaning in terms of truth conditions turned out to be unsatisfactory. DRT adopts the rather 'dynamic' view of natural language semantics, where the meaning of a sentence is defined in how it can change the context.

One of the striking features of DRT is that it, instead of working with first-order formula syntax, works with explicit semantic representations. Such representations are called **Discourse Representation Structure (DRS)** which describes the objects mentioned in a discourse and their properties.

Pronouns in Discourse

The pronoun is bound to the noun phrase when semantic rules and contextual interpretation determine that a pronoun is co referential with a noun phrase. A pronoun is free or unbound when it refers to some object not mentioned in the discourse.

Pronouns include three classes:

- Personal pronoun
- Possessive determiners
- Possessive pronouns

Personal Pronouns:

The speaker and the addressee of a communication situation are often marked linguistically by the first- and second-person pronouns. As already mentioned, the reference of the singular first- and second-person pronouns is very simple as the referents are normally the speaker and the addressee, whereas the reference of especially the plural first-person pronouns is more complex. Conventional typological studies have arranged personal pronouns into tables and used the terms 'first', 'second' and 'third person', and 'singular' and 'plural number'.

- **Examples:** *If the buyer wants to look the condition of the property, he has to have another survey. One carried out on his own behalf.*
- Here in the above example the use of personal pronoun 'he' or 'his' for 'buyer' and 'one' for 'survey' is a source of personal reference.

Possessive pronouns:

If possessive pronouns are used, they give two more notions other than speaker and addressee. They are that of 'possessor' and 'possessed'

- **Example:** *That new house is John's.*
- *I didn't know it was his.*

Here, in the above example the use of possessive pronouns 'his' for 'John' indicates the possessor and 's' is for the possessed 'house' includes another source of personal reference.

Reflexive pronouns:

Reflexive pronouns are a kind of pronoun that is used when the subject and the object of the sentence are the same.

Include *myself, ourselves, yourself, yourselves himself, herself, itself, themselves.*

Pronouns may be classified by three categories: person, number, and case. **Person** refers to the relationship that an author has with the text that he or she writes, and with the reader of that text. English has three persons (first, second, and third):

- **First-person** is the speaker or writer him- or herself. The first person is personal (*I, we, etc.*)
- **Second-person** is the person who is being directly addressed. The speaker or author is saying this is about you, the listener or reader.
- **Third-person** is the most common person used in academic writing. The author is saying this is about other people. In the third person singular there are distinct pronoun forms for male, female, and neutral gender.

THE NATURE OF REFERENCE IN TEXT AND IN DISCOURSE-II

Pronouns and Antecedent Nominals

A **pronoun antecedent** is a word that comes before a pronoun to which the pronoun refers. Following are definitions of antecedent as well as a review about the types of pronouns, information about the functions of an antecedent in a sentence, and examples of how to use in a sentence.

Defining a Pronoun Antecedent

The word **“antecedent”** means something that precedes something else. In language, it is the word that a pronoun refers back to. Since the pronoun replaces the noun, it has to agree in number. So, if the antecedent, or word that comes before, is singular, then the pronoun that takes its place must also be singular. It can be confusing if there are several words between the pronoun and its antecedent. These words or clauses have no bearing on the words and they need to be ignored.

Following are some special situations with examples of the correct way to have pronoun antecedent agreement.

Compound subjects can be a problem. If the subjects are joined by an **“and”** then the pronoun needs to be plural, as in "Bob and Paul took their books. If the subjects are joined by "or" or **“nor”**, then have the pronoun agree with the subject that is closer, or closest, to the pronoun. An example is "Either the actor or the singers messed up their performance.

If the pronoun is referring to one thing or a unit, like a team or a jury, then the pronoun needs to be singular. An example is: "The jury has reached its verdict."

Sometimes words sound plural and are not, like measles or the news. These would need a singular pronoun, as in: "Measles is not as widespread as it once was." This makes sense if you replace the word "measles" with "disease."

Indefinite Pronouns That Are Antecedents

There are several rules concerning the use of indefinite pronouns as antecedents and the pronoun antecedent agreement. The following indefinite pronouns are singular and need a singular pronoun: one, no one, someone, everyone, anyone, nobody, anybody, somebody, everybody, nothing, anything, and something, everything, each, either, neither. An example is "Everything here has its own box."

The plural indefinite pronouns: several, both, few, and many, need to have a plural pronoun, like in this sentence: "Several are there because of their looks."

Lastly, if there is an indefinite pronoun that is being modified by a prepositional phrase, then the object of the phrase will determine the agreement between the pronoun and its antecedent. These

special indefinite pronouns are: some, most, all, any, or none. Look at these two sentences: "Most of the flour fell out of its canister" and "Many of the gems have lost their shine". If the object, like "flour" is uncountable, then the pronoun has to be singular (its). If the object is countable, like "gems", then the pronoun needs to be plural (their).

Pronouns and Antecedent Predicates

Subject-Predicate (Verb) Agreement Make sure you don't have subject-verb agreement problems in a complete sentence. Distractions within a sentence can make you misidentify subject and verb, leading to an agreement problem. Remember that a verb must agree in person and number with its subject, regardless of other elements in a sentence.

Locating the subject of a sentence

Your first job is to locate the subject of the sentence. To do this, find the verb, the action word or the state-of-being word, and then determine who or what is being talked about. Then ask yourself, Is the subject first person (I/we), second person (you), or third person (he, she, it/they)? Is the subject singular or plural? When you've answered these questions, you will know which form the verb should take. Singular subjects take singular verbs, and plural subjects take plural verbs.

Subject-verb agreement with a compound subject

In sentences with more than one subject (a compound subject), the word and usually appears between the elements.

Use a plural verb with a compound subject:

- Drinking a glass of milk and soaking in the tub help me fall asleep.
- **NOT** Drinking a glass of milk and soaking in the tub helps me fall asleep.

If each/every precedes a compound subject, treat the subject as singular.

- Each dog and cat is to be fed twice a day.
- Every house and garage have been searched.

Additive phrases

An additive phrase sometimes makes a sentence look as if it has a compound subject. Examples of these phrases are accompanied by, along with, as well as, in addition to, including, and together with. When you use one of these phrases, you are thinking of more than one person or thing. But grammatically these phrases aren't conjunctions like and. They are actually modifying the subject, rather than making it compound. Therefore, do not use a plural verb because of these modifying phrases.

- The President of the United States, accompanied by his advisors, was en route to Europe.
- **NOT** The President of the United States, accompanied by his advisors, were en route to Europe.

Phrases and clauses between subject and verb

Watch out for phrases and clauses that come between the subject and predicate in a sentence. To make sure you have the right person and number for the verb, mentally eliminate intervening phrases and clauses.

- The speech that provoked the demonstration and caused the closing of the university was filled with inaccuracies.
- **NOT** The speeches that provoked the demonstration and caused the closing of the university were filled with inaccuracies.

Subject-verb agreement

The conjunctions or, either ...or, and neither ...nor ask you to choose between things rather than add things. If both elements are singular, use a singular verb. If both elements are plural, use a plural verb. If one element is singular and one is plural, choose the verb that agrees with the element closest to it.

- The director or the assistant director is planning to be on location.
- **NOT** The director or the assistant **director are** planning to be on location.

Subject-verb agreement in relative clauses

Agreement problems can occur in relative clauses using which, that, or one of those who. The verb in a relative clause must agree with the relative pronoun's antecedent (the word the pronoun stands for). Always ask yourself what the relative pronoun refers to.

- He decided to write novels, which are his favorite form.
- **NOT** He decided to write novels, **which is** his favorite form.

Pronouns and 'new' Predicates

Pronouns may refer to predicate which are not mentioned previously. In discourse, the speaker may structure his message in such a way that some **new** information is attached to 'given' elements (i.e., pronouns) intending the hearer to provide the given/ **new** interpretive procedure. However, the hearer may have to reverse that procedure and use the **new** information to decide what the given referent must have been.

A **predicate pronoun** is any pronoun that is part of the predicate. A predicate is the part of a sentence that includes the verb and the words following it that relate to that verb.

Explanation:

Examples:

- I will call him.
- The teacher gave us a history assignment.
- Mother made lunch for them.

A sentence may have more than one predicate;

For example:

- Mother made lunch for them and set it on the picnic table.

Slide13: A subjective pronoun can be part of a predicate when it is the subject of a clause,

For example:

- Mary **brought a cake she made for the party.**

A subjective pronoun is also used as a subject complement when it follows a linking verb;

For example:

The leaders right now are he and I.

Lecture-14

Doing Discourse Analysis

METHODOLOGY

Ethics

Proponents of discourse ethics reverse the order in which we normally address ethical uncertainties. Instead of starting with one theory or another and then taking it out into the world to solve problems, they start with a problem and try to create a moral structure to solve it. Ethical solutions become ad hoc, custom generated to resolve specific conflicts. It doesn't matter so much, therefore, that people come to an issue like bribery from divergent moral grounds because that difference is erased by the key element of discourse ethics: a foundational decision to cut away from old ideas and make new ones.

Discourse ethics (DE) has two aims: to specify the ideal conditions for discourse and to ground ethics in the agreements reached through the exercise of such discourse. Discourse ethics consequently instantiates the intuition that if people discuss issues in fair and open ways, the resulting conclusions will be morally binding for those appropriately involved in the conversation. Such a view of ethics has special relevance in a scientific and technological world characterized by expanding means of communication. DE may also arguably provide the best framework for understanding the ethics of scientists and engineers operating within their professional communities.

Theoretical Framework

Discourse ethics is primarily associated with the work of Karl-Otto Apel (1980) and Jürgen Habermas, who touches his own theory of communicative rationality and action (1981) with **Apel's insights (Habermas 1983, 1989). Apel and Habermas root DE emphasis on the importance of moral self-sufficiency for both the individual and the moral community (Apel 2001) and in Aristotle's understanding of the importance of human community praxis as the container in which all theory must be tested. DE has deeply influenced not only philosophy and sociology but also, in keeping with its praxis orientation, such applied fields as business ethics (Blickle et al.**

Habermas summarizes the basic intuition of discourse ethics with the statement that "under the moral point of view, one must be able to test whether a norm or a mode of action could be generally accepted by those affected by it, such that their acceptance would be rationally motivated" (Habermas 1989).

To define such discourse more carefully, Habermas refines a set of rules first proposed by Robert Alexy (1978). According to Habermas (1990), these are:

1. Every subject with the competence to speak and act is allowed to take part in a discourse.
- 2a. everyone is allowed to question any assertion whatever.
- 2b. everyone is allowed to introduce any assertion whatever into the discourse.
- 2c. everyone is allowed to express his (or her) attitudes, desires, and needs.

3. No speaker may be prevented, by internal or external coercion, from exercising his (or her) rights as laid down in (1) and (2).

Discourse ethics thus intends to define the conditions of a free and democratic discourse concerning important norms that affect all members of a community. It aims to do so in ways that are directly practical for the real and pressing problems facing both local and more comprehensive communities. In this light, DE would seem well-suited for circumscribing discourse concerning pressing issues provoked by science and technology.

DE has further played both a theoretical and practical role in connection with the Internet and the World Wide Web. For example, DE has been used to structure online dialogues regarding important but highly controversial social issues such as abortion. These dialogues in fact realize the potential of DE to achieve consensus on important community norms, insofar as they bring to the foreground important normative agreements on the part of those holding otherwise opposed positions, agreements that made a pluralistic resolution of the abortion debate possible (Ess and Cavalier 1997). In 2002 DE served as the framework for the ethics working committee of the Association of Internet Researchers (AoIR), as they sought to develop the first set of ethical guidelines designed specifically for online research and with a view toward recognizing and sustaining the genuinely global ethical and cultural diversity entailed in such research. The guidelines stand as an example of important consensus on ethical norms achieved by participants from throughout the world.

Data Generation

As discourse analysis is concerned with what is accomplished in interaction, the most appropriate sources of data are those that contain some kind of interaction. This may be different from other qualitative methods as it means that conversations rather than stand-alone texts are preferable (although also acceptable). This nevertheless means that a wide range of data can be used to conduct discourse analyses including (but by no means limited to) ordinary conversations (e.g. Stokoe and Edwards 2006) media data, (including televised discussion programs, e.g. Goodman 2010) and a range of ‘institutional talk’ (e.g. Lea and Auburn 2001 on the talk of convicted offenders).

Data should be generated (for example through interviews and focus groups) for the purpose of discourse analysis (Goodman and Speer 2015). Potter (1997) defines such data as ‘contrived’ and claims it is ‘subject to powerful expectations about social science research fielded by participants; and there are particular difficulties in extrapolating from interview talk to activities in other settings’ and instead favours ‘naturally occurring talk’ (1997: 148) which is data that has not been influenced in any way by the researcher. The examples listed in the previous paragraph would all meet this standard.

However, Speer (2002) has argued that data cannot clearly be split into these two types ('naturally occurring' and 'contrived'). Speer claims that all situations can to some extent be seen as contrived and natural. Any institutional data can be viewed as contrived, equally, all data is also natural as it will involve real people speaking in real social situations, who will be 'naturally' generating action orientated talk. This is true even if that social situation has been constructed for the sake of research. Those who do not have a problem with, or who value, 'contrived' data may well generate data for analysis by conducting interviews (e.g. Leudar et al. 2008) and focus groups (e.g. Goodman and Burke 2010). There is no right or wrong response to this debate, just as long as the focus is on the interaction in the data, although it is good practice to (briefly) explain why the chosen approach has been used.

Confidentiality

Confidentiality refers to a condition in which the researcher knows the identity of a research subject, but takes steps to protect that identity from being discovered by others. Most human subject's research requires collection of a sign consent agreement from participants, and thus researchers are aware of the identity of their subjects. In such cases, maintaining confidentiality is a key measure to ensure the protection of private information.

This Section of the Guide explores the various forms of discourse analysis including one area, conversation analysis, that used to be regarded as distinct from discourse analysis but is increasingly viewed as a form of discourse analysis. The term discourse analysis is thought to have first appeared in 1952 in the title of a paper by Zellig Harris. However, it was from the late 1960s that it emerged as a cross-disciplinary approach, coinciding in with the interest in semiotics, psycholinguistics and sociolinguistics.

Researchers employ a number of methods to keep their subjects' identity confidential. Foremost, they keep their records secure through the use of password protected files, encryption when sending information over the internet, and even old-fashioned locked doors and drawers. They frequently do not record information in a way that links subject responses with identifying information (usually by use of a code known only to them). And because subjects may often not be identified by names alone, but by other identifiers or by combinations of information about subjects, researchers will often only report aggregate findings, not individual-level data, to the public.

from a purely methodological point of view, it may sometimes be necessary to lower other scientific standards in order to ensure confidentiality. This applies in particular to the scientific ideal of verifiability (see also Research values). In principle, the need for verifiability means that the researcher must publish sufficient information to enable others to repeat the procedures and verify the results. The confidentiality requirement may, for example, mean that the results must be grouped, or names or values modified, in order to ensure that some data cannot be traced back

to individuals or particularly vulnerable groups. Although this may affect the degree of verifiability, it is essential that confidentiality is respected. However, this potential conflict makes it important that the researcher has reflected in advance over what specific strategies should be aimed for to ensure an epistemic as well as ethical standard.

Researchers may also be faced with a dilemma with regard to maintaining confidentiality in other situations, where this type of methodological consideration is not involved. For example, some types of research, such as mapping insider trading or illegal immigration, may be of interest to business or to government policy. If researchers are served with a court order to reveal their source, when is it ethically correct to breach confidentiality for such reasons? A further source of confusion for the individual researcher may be that this is not purely a matter of conscience, but also a question of the possibility of doing further research. For further reading on researchers' notification requirement, see the article Duty of secrecy.

There are often no simple solutions in situations where ethical considerations are apparently in conflict with one another. One pertinent fact, however, is that in cases where it is conceivable that such a dilemma may arise, researchers must consider carefully in advance whether they should establish a confidential relationship with the person or persons concerned at all. It is never straightforward, and almost always wrong, under any circumstances, to establish a relationship based on deceit with persons upon whom one wishes to conduct research.

DOING DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

Developing a Discourse Analysis Project

Discourse analysis is a useful tool for studying the **political meanings** that inform written and spoken text. Discourse Analysis is the **investigation of knowledge about language beyond the word, clause, phrase and sentence levels**. All of them are the basic building blocks of successful communication. In discourse analysis researchers have to **infiltrate language as a whole** beyond the micro level of words and sentences and look at the entire body of communication produced in a given / particular situation. Discourse analysis refers to attempts to **study the organization of language above the sentence** or above the clause, and therefore to study larger linguistic units, such as conversational exchanges or written texts (Stubbs 1983). However, Michael Stubbs redefines Discourse in his later work as **it is therefore more accurate to say that text and discourse analysis studies language in context: how words and phrases fit into both longer texts, and also social contexts** of use (Stubbs 2001).

There are a number of issues that need to be considered when planning a discourse analysis project. The first of these is the **actual research question**. The **key** to any **good research** project is a **well-focused** research question. It can, however, take longer than expected to find this question. Cameron (2001) has suggested that one important characteristic of a good research project is that it contains a '**good idea**'; that is, the project is on something that is worth finding. As Cameron and others have pointed out, deciding on and refining the research question is often the hardest part of the project. It is, thus, worth spending as much time as necessary to get it right.

Criteria for developing a discourse analysis project

In her book ***Qualitative Methods in Sociolinguistics***, Johnstone (2000) lists a number of criteria that contribute to the development of a good and workable research topic. In her case, she is talking about research in the area of sociolinguistics. What she says, however, applies equally to discourse analysis projects. These criteria include

- A well-focused idea about spoken or written discourse that is expressed as a question or a set of closely related questions;
- An understanding of how discourse analytic techniques can be used to answer the research question you are asking;
- An understanding of why your question about spoken or written discourse are important in a wider context; that is, why answering the question will have practical value and/or be of interest to the world at large;
- Familiarity with and access to the location where your discourse analysis project will be carried out;
- Ability to get the discourse data that is needed for the research project;

- The time it will realistically take to carry out the discourse analysis project, analyze the results and write up the results of the project;
- Being comfortable with and competent in the ways of collecting the discourse data required by the project;
- Being competent in the method of analysis required for the project.

Choosing a Research Topic

Pragmatics, Discourse Analysis, and Critical Discourse Analysis are separate but related areas of linguistic inquiry. These are concerned with the constituents and structures of discourse (like words and phrases) as they are used in context to make meaning. Pragmatics often focuses on the social and generic constraints (like politeness conventions, relative social status, etc.) that shape communicative situations, while **discourse analysis** may foreground how discourse constructs social meanings, serves rhetorical purposes, or creates subject positions. **Critical discourse analysis** is particularly interested in the relationship between discourse and the preservation or subversion of power. Research in these areas may ask questions related to language-in-use and its meaning-making functions.

A good place to start in choosing a **research topic** is by drawing up a shortlist of topics that interest you. You can do this by speaking to other students, by asking colleagues, by asking teachers and by asking potential supervisors, as well as by looking up related research in the library. As Cameron (2001) points out, *good ideas for research do not ‘just spring from the researcher’s imagination, they are suggested by previous research’*.

It is important, then, to read widely to see what previous research has said about the topic you are interested in, including what questions can be asked and answered from a discourse perspective. This reading will also give a view of what the current issues and debates are in the approach to discourse analysis you are interested in, as well as how other researchers have gone about answering the question you are interested in from a discourse perspective. It is important to remember, however, that a research question and a research topic are not the same thing.

A **research topic** is your general area of interest, whereas the **research question** is the particular thing you want to find out and which grows out of your research topic (Sunderland 2010). When deciding on a topic, there are a few things that you will need to do:

- brainstorm for ideas
- choose a topic that will enable you to read and understand the literature
- ensure that the topic is manageable and that material is available
- make a list of key words
- be flexible
- define your topic as a focused research question
- research and read more about your topic
- formulate a thesis statement

V Important Q

Be aware that selecting a good topic may not be easy. It must be narrow and focused enough to be interesting, yet broad enough to find adequate information. Before selecting your topic, make sure you know what your final project should look like. Each class or instructor will likely require a different format or style of research project.

Focusing a Research Topic

The next now, needed to focus on research topic. Often aspiring researchers start off with a project that is overly large and ambitious. Stevens and Asmar (1999) suggest that **‘wiser heads’** know that a good research project is **‘narrow and deep’**. In their words, **‘even the simplest idea can flourish into an uncontrollably large project’**. They highlight how important it is for students to listen to more experienced researchers in their field and to be guided by their advice in the early stages of the research. They suggest starting off by getting immersed in the literature and reading broadly and widely to find a number of potential research topics. This can be done by making heavy use of the library as well as by reading the abstracts of recent theses and dissertations, some of which are available on the World Wide Web (see Directions for further reading at the end of this chapter for some of these URLs).

Once the reading has been done, it is useful to write a few lines on each topic and use this as the basis to talk to other people about the research. Often one topic may emerge as the strongest contender from these conversations, not only because it is the most original or interesting but also because it is the most doable in terms of access to data and resource facilities, your expertise in the use of discourse analysis techniques, as well as supervision support. Here are some of the ideas my student interested in comparing Chinese and English writing started off with.

- **Topic 1:** A comparison of Chinese students’ essay writing in Chinese and English written in their first year of undergraduate studies
- **Topic 2:** A comparison of students’ Master’s theses in Chinese and English
- **Topic 3:** An examination of newspaper articles in Chinese and English from an intercultural rhetoric perspective

Each of these questions is influenced by previous research on the topic. Each of them, however, has its problems. The **first topic** is an interesting one. It would be difficult, however, to get texts written by the same students in their first year of undergraduate studies in the two different settings. It is also not certain (or perhaps not even likely) that they will be asked to do the same or even comparable pieces of writing in the two sets of first-year undergraduate study. It is also not likely that a Chinese student who has completed an undergraduate degree in a Chinese university would then do the same undergraduate degree in an English medium university. There is also no suggestion in the first topic as to how the pieces of writing would be analyzed.

The **second topic** is more possible as some Chinese students do go on to do a degree that includes a thesis in English after having done a degree with a thesis component in Chinese. There would, however, be many more students writing coursework essays and assignments in

English who had done something similar in Chinese. So there is a problem of gaining sufficient pieces of writing for the study. There is also the problem of gaining access to the students, and hoping the students will still have the pieces of writing that they did when they were students in China. It is, of course, possible to do both of these first two studies with writing done by different students, as most studies of this kind have done.

There is still, however, the problem of getting comparable pieces of writing so that the same, or at least similar things, can be compared.

The **third topic**, in some ways, solves the data collection issue as newspaper texts are publicly available as long as you have access to a library, or an electronic database where previous copies of newspapers are held. The theoretical framework in this topic, intercultural rhetoric, however, in the sense of cultural influences of ways of writing in one language on another, has not been used to examine newspaper articles as it is probably not very common that Chinese writers of newspaper articles are required to write a newspaper article in English. So, while the third topic is practical in many ways, the theoretical framework had not been used to approach it at this stage. My student who was working on this topic decided the notion of genre, rather than intercultural rhetoric, might be a better place to start. He still retained an interest in intercultural rhetoric, however, and wanted to include this in some way in his study. His refocused topic, then, became: **A contrastive study of letters to the editor in Chinese and English.**

DOING DISCOURSE ANALYSIS-III

Turning the Topic into a Research Question

Student had settled on his topic, but it still needed to be turned into a research question. A possible first attempt at this question might be,

- What are the differences between letters to the editor in Chinese and English?

This question however presupposes an outcome before the study has been carried out; that is, that there would indeed be differences between the two sets of writings. The question also does not capture anything of the theoretical models that might be used to answer this question.

The refocused set of questions that my student ended up with was:

1. In what ways are Chinese and English letters to the editor similar or different?
2. Can we use genre theory and intercultural rhetoric to understand these similarities and differences?

His question, hence, became more focused. It did not yet state exactly what aspects of genre theory he would draw on for his analysis, however. These became clearer as he read further on his topic and carried out trial analyses. He then decided to look at the generic structures in the two sets of texts and the typical rhetorical types (such as problem–solution, compare and contrast, etc.) present in the texts. He also decided to look at the use of logico-semantic relations (Martin 1992) between clauses in the two sets of texts as his reading had told him this was an aspect of writing, in some genres at least, that differs in Chinese and English writing.

His questions, therefore, were now worth asking and capable of being answered from a discourse analysis perspective. As he argued, most studies of Chinese and English writing either looked at Chinese, or English writing, but not at both. Also, few studies used the same textual criteria for the two sets of analyses. Many previous studies of this kind, further, focused on ‘direct’ or ‘indirect’ aspects of Chinese and English writing and did not go beyond this to explore how the various parts of the texts combine together to create coherent texts. So, what he was doing was theoretically useful, it was possible to collect the texts and he was capable of analyzing the data in the way that he proposed.

It is important, then, as my student did, to strike a balance between the value of the question and your ability to develop a discourse analysis project you are capable of carrying out; that is, a project for which you have the background, expertise, resources and access to data needed. It is also important to spend as much time as is needed to get the research question right as research questions that are well-designed and well-worded is key to a good research project (Sunderland 2010).

Connecting Data Collection, Analysis and Research Questions

Sunderland (2010) provides helpful advice on how to connect data collection and analysis with your research question(s). She suggests completing a table such as the one shown in Table 1.1 to do this.

Table 1.1: Connecting data collection, analysis and research questions (Sunderland 2010)

	Research Question	Data Needed	Data Collection	Data Analysis
1.				
2.				
3.				

However, that things are not always as neat as Table 10.1 might suggest. Sometimes one research question might require more than one set of data or you might be able to use one set of data to address more than one research question. What you will see, however, from your chart is whether there are any gaps that still need to be filled or data that still needs to be collected to address each of your questions (Sunderland 2010).

Kinds of Discourse Analysis Projects

There are a number of different kinds of projects that can be carried out from a discourse analysis perspective. A number of these are described below, together with examples of previous discourse projects and details of the data that were collected for each of these projects.

Replication of previous discourse studies

One kind of study to consider is a replication study. Indeed, there has been a resurgence of interest in these kinds of studies in recent years. The editor of the journal *Language Teaching*, for example, argues that:

Such research should play a more significant role in the field than it has up to now and that it is both useful and necessary. (Language Teaching review panel 2008)

As Santos (1989) points out, the findings of many studies are often not tested by further studies which follow the same methodology and a similar data set either at the same point in time or at some stage later when the findings may be different. Santos describes this lack of replication studies as a serious weakness in applied linguistics research. Such studies provide both the accumulation and consolidation of knowledge over time.

Samraj's (2005) study of research article abstracts and introductions is an example of a replication study. Her aim was to test the results of previous research into the discourse structure of research article introductions to see whether they apply to articles written in the area of conservation. She also wished to look at whether the discourse structure of the research article abstracts was as different from the discourse structure of research article introductions as previous research had claimed them to be. She analyzed her data using models that had been used in previous research on this topic, namely Swales' (1990) research into research article

introductions and Bhatia's (1993) and Hyland's (2004) research on research article abstracts. Once she had compared her findings with the results of previous research, she then compared her two data sets with each other to examine the extent to which they were similar in terms of discourse organization and function, also the focus of previous research.

- **Using different discourse data but the same methodology**

A further way of using previous research is to carry out a study which uses different discourse data from a previous study, but the same methodology so as to be able to compare and contrast your findings with those of the original study. Yang's (1997) study of the opening sequences in Chinese telephone calls did this. She collected 80 Chinese telephone conversations made by three Chinese families living in Beijing. She analyzed the opening sequences of these conversations, then compared her findings with the findings of previous research into opening sequences in telephone calls in the United States and a number of other countries and, in particular, published claims about 'canonical' openings of telephone conversations in English.

- **Analyzing existing data from a discourse analysis perspective**

Channell's (1997) study of telephone conversations took already published data, a conversation supposed to be between the Prince of Wales and Camilla Parker-Bowles, and analyzed it to see in what way the speakers expressed love, what the effect of the telephone was on their talk and what features of the conversation mark it as being the talk of two people who are in a close and intimate relationship. She looked at topic choice and topic management, ways of expressing love and caring, the language of desire and the way in which the speakers said goodbye to each other. Her study confirmed previous work on telephone closings in that both speakers employed an elaborate set of pre-closings and continued repetitions (such as 'love you', 'love you forever' and 'love you too') before concluding their conversation. Anyhow, her study does show the value of taking already existing data to see how discourse analytic techniques can help to further understand already published data.

- **Analyzing discourse data from a different perspective**

Another possibility is to take data that has already been analyzed from one discourse perspective and analyze it from another. Orr (1996) did this in her study of arguments in a reality TV show. Her particular interest was in using conversation analysis as an alternate way of looking at data that had already been examined from a frame semantics perspective (Lee, 1997) to see what this other perspective might reveal about the nature of the interactions. Her study followed the philosophy of conversation analytic studies in that she started with the data and allowed the details of the analysis to emerge from her transcriptions. Through repeated listening's to the data she saw how the speakers challenged and countered each other's points of view in a series of cyclical moves until one or the other speaker accepted the point of the argument.

- **Focusing on unanalyzed genres**

Another possibility is to focus on data that has not been analyzed before and describe characteristic features of the particular discourse. This could, for example, be an analysis of one of the many new genres that are emerging through the use of new technologies, or it may be examples of a genre that has not been analyzed before from a discourse perspective. Ooi (2001)

looked at a new and emerging genre in his study of personal advertisements on the internet. His study was based on data collected from internet dating sites in the United States and Singapore. He broke his data up into three groupings based on three types. He then carried out a lexical analysis of the texts, looking at word frequency and collocations by gender and country of origin to see to what extent males and females differ in their expectations of each other, and the kinds of words and expressions they use to express these expectations.

Combining discourse and other research perspectives

Nakane and the Wang studies that have just been described drew on a number of different **discourse analysis** and other **research perspectives** to work towards answers to their research questions. When combining perspectives in this way, it is important to understand the basis of the perspectives being drawn on to appreciate what this placing together implies and, indeed, if it is possible to do this. **People working in the area of conversation analysis**, for example, would consider Nakane's combination of conversation analytic techniques and ethnography impossible as for a conversation analyst the evidence is in the data, and the closest an analyst is able to get to understanding an event is in the transcription and analysis of the data. For them, insiders' views are only intuitions and not, in their view, admissible in the analysis and interpretation of the data. My view, however, is that Nakane strengthened rather than weakened her study by combining perspectives in the way that she did.

Cameron (2005) discusses the problems associated with what she calls 'theoretical and methodological eclecticism'. She points out that sometimes this carries a high risk of superficiality as the researcher may be trying to do too many things at once and not end up doing any of them properly (which is not the case in either the Nakane or the Wang studies).

It is not impossible to mix discourse analysis and other methods. What this requires, however, is 'a clear rationale for putting approaches together, a sophisticated understanding of each approach, and an account of how the tensions between approaches will be handled in [the] study' (127).

A researcher can, then, combine an approach to discourse analysis with a non-discourse analytic perspective on the research, as both Nakane and Wang have done in their studies. Both Nakane and Wang have shown how doing this can provide more of an account of the issue they are examining than might have been possible with just the one, single discourse analysis (or other research) perspective. It is crucial, however, in the planning of this kind of project that each of the approaches are weighed up against each other, identifying what kind of information each approach can (and cannot) supply. By doing this the use of one approach to discourse analysis in combination with another approach to discourse analysis or other approaches to research can be justified. Indeed, often an approach of this kind can provide a fuller and more explanatory perspective on the question under investigation than might be provided with just the one single perspective.

Lecture-15

Discourse Genre and Critical Discourse Analysis

Genre as social action

Discourse arises among people, in interaction, and it is part of the means by which people accomplish social actions. Meanings arise within the pragmatic unfolding of events and mediate the alignment of participants to perceptions of immediate situations and relevant contexts (whether fictive or non-fictive) called to mind by language. Language is crafted, deployed, and interpreted by individuals in the course of social participation, even when individuals use language in a personally reflective mode, considering one's own identity, commitments, and actions while using received language. Language users (with particular neurophysiological capacities and individual histories of language experience) in the course of interaction call upon the resources of language that are socially and culturally available and that have been typified through histories of social circulation; nonetheless, individuals construct meanings and consequentiality from their perception of particular novel situations and of their participant action in those situations.

- **The thinness of the written sign**

Slide3: In written language, these themes of situated alignment over meaning are both highlighted and obscured. Because written texts often communicate with people at a distance of time and space, the here-and-now existence of one's interlocutor is typically invisible at the moment of writing or reading. If our interlocutors come to mind, they appear as acts of imagination based on limited clues obtained from prior texts or interactions, rather than as embodied presences. Without immediate interactive response we cannot rapidly repair, modify, or expand the utterance to increase alignment. The communicative clues for a successful alignment over meanings and actions must be carried through the arrangement of the few letters of the alphabet in words, sentences, and larger units along with punctuation, graphic elements, and material-ties of the medium.

The thinness of the written signs and the distance from the receiver often leave the writer uncertain whether the produced artifact will evoke the desired meanings and effects. On the receptive side, the reader may struggle with interpretation of what precise meanings could have been intended by the author or other presenter of the signs. The problem of arrangement over limited clues is most distressing when the text is written in a hard-to-read script or in a language the reader has limited familiarity with. Then the reader may be left with just ink marks on paper that cannot be animated into meanings and intentions. Even if the reader is highly literate in the language, ambiguous words, unfamiliar references, novel ideas, difficult syntax, or complex arguments can make an act of reading an imaginative and interpretive challenge.

These thin symbols only interpretable in an approximate way, at a different time and in a different place, by a different person, with different motives and mental contents have proved remarkably robust in allowing communication of the complex thoughts of philosophy, accumulation of extensive interrelated knowledge and theories of science, planning and coordination of large architectural projects, and maintenance of large institutions such as legal

systems and government bureaucracies. Meaning is not fully available and immanent in the bare spelled words. Interactants' familiarity with domains of communication and relevant genres make the kind of communication recognizable: establishing roles, values, domains of content, and general actions that then create the space for more specific, detailed, refined utterances and meanings spelled out in the crafted words.

- **Typification, social organization, and social change**

Genre typifications result from a process of psycho-social category formation. The categories themselves have no permanent substance. Genre taxonomies, nonetheless, can be useful to map users' categories within a defined social historical space and to define widespread functional patterns in vigorous social systems. Further, though human neurobiological organization may favor certain patterns of cognition (such as episodic memory) and perception (such as organization and salience in visual fields), which may in turn lead to preferences for certain sequencing of statements or recognition of text structures, these still operate below the level of organized social utterance within coordinated activity. Even in the short run, major changes in social relations, economic conditions, governmental regulations, disciplinary goals, communicative technologies or other situational dimensions can lead to a rapid genre change. Indeed, the affordances of electronic search, rapid communication, and instantaneous access to wide ranges of information are currently changing genres in numerous social spheres vary rapidly, with further consequences for the social organization of activities, leading to further genre evolution.

What provides for communicative stability is not the genre in itself, but the system of activity that the genre is part of (Engestrom, 1987, 1990; Bazerman, 1994a; Russell, 1997). No matter how stabilized and defining genres may appear within some long enduring social systems, we must also remember that genre is a categorization of an utterance and is not a full account or description of any individual utterance itself and its meaning. Even if a text is widely and unproblematically attributable to a single genre (let us say, a bank cheque), it nonetheless carries out a specific communication in a specific context, identifying payer, payee, bank and account, and dates of transaction and will fail if there is some failure in these elements reported in the document.

Further, these documents can circulate to different situations as parts of different activities, even if the original context is recognized. In a court proceeding, this cheque (recognized as such) may turn into a piece of evidence of fraud (if it meets another very special set of criteria, drawn from legal rules of evidence). Fifty years from now it can become historical evidence of the financial dealings of a famous writer. That is, it may be viewed both variously and multiply in terms of genre. Genres facilitate interpretation of meaning or anticipation of interpretation, and may thereby guide production or reception, but they do not rule absolutely, nor do they displace local acts of meaning making that have evolutionary potential for the systems they are embedded in.

- **Implications for discourse analysis**

The perspective presented here has several clear implications for the analysis of discourse. **First**, discourse occurs within a social situation and should be understood and analyzed, as it operates meaningfully within that situation.

Second, discursive situations are understood by their participants as organized and structured so as to be meaningful and sensible to them. The mechanisms by which definitions of situation and action are shared among participants are at the heart of social systematicity and of the organization of discourse.

Third, the knowledge, thought, and meanings expressed within situated utterances then become part of the ongoing resources and definition of the situation for future utterances. Discourse is to be understood dynamically, within the construction of those situations and of the larger social activity systems within which those utterances occur.

Fourth, regularities of linguistic form usually accompany stabilizations of social groups and activities so, to look for linguistic orders, we should look to social orders; and, to look for social orders, and we should look to linguistic orders. While in the past geography may have been the dominant coverable of linguistic variation, with literacy and other communication at a distance technology the social variables of linguistic variation are increasingly tied to more extensive groupings such as social and cultural institutions, disciplines and professions, work organizations, and media audiences.

Fifth, linguistic entrainment into particular discursive practices goes hand in hand with socialization into activity networks and with cognitive development into the forms of thinking associated with interacting in those activity systems. Internalization of linguistic action transforms into dispositions and orientations.

Sixth, when discourse travels outside of its original ambit, the mechanisms for that wider travel are themselves topics of examination. This includes study of the genres within which such discourses arise, the genres in which they travel, and the genres into which they are received, as well as the processes that occur at the translation border between genres. Those discourses that seem to circulate freely among multiple situations also deserve investigation for the mechanisms by which they appear meaningful at multiple sites and for the differential ways in which they are integrated into different discursive systems and their genres.

In sum, utterances are parts of social life, and the discourses produced within our social life are to be understood within all the dimensions of life. The signs we study are only the residue of complex psychosocial cultural processes, in which they served as mediators of meaning.

While we may study them as residues, for the regularities to be found in residues, their fundamental order is only to be found in their full animation as meaningful communication in the unfolding interactions of life. The orders of discourse are to be found in the dynamics of life processes.

DISCOURSE AND GENRE

One of the key ways in which people communicate with each other is through the participation in particular communicative events, or genres. A letter to the editor is an example of a genre. Other examples of genres are news reports, business reports, parliamentary speeches, summing up in a court of law and weather reports.

Current Question

What is Genre?

Genres are ways in which people ‘get things done’ through their use of spoken and written discourse. Genres are activities that people engage in through the use of language. Academic lectures and casual conversations are examples of spoken genres. Newspaper reports and academic essays are examples of written genres. Instances of a genre often share a number of features. They may be spoken or written in typical, and sometimes conventional, ways. They also often have a common function and purpose (or set of functions and purposes). Genres may typically be performed by a particular person aimed at a particular audience. Genres change through time. This may, for example, be in response to changes in technologies or it may be as a result of changes in values underlying the use of the particular genre.

Genre analysis and English for specific purposes

The approach to genre analysis commonly employed in the teaching of English for specific purposes is based on Swales’ (1981, 1990, 2004) analyses of the discourse structure of research article introductions. Swales use the notion of moves to describe the discourse structure of texts. In his book *Genre analysis* Swales (1990) argued that communicative purpose was the key factor that leads a person to decide whether a text is an instance of a particular genre or not. He has since, however, revised this view, saying that it is now clear that genres may have multiple purposes and that these may be different for each of the participants involved (Askehave and Swales 2001). Also, instances of a genre which are similar linguistically and rhetorically may have ‘startling differences in communicative purpose’ in the words of Swales and Rogers (1995). The communicative purpose of a genre, further, may evolve over time. It may change, it may expand or it may shrink (Swales 2004). Communicative purpose, further, can vary across cultures even when texts belong to the same genre category.

Rhetorical genre studies

Researchers in rhetorical genre studies describe genres as part of the social processes by which knowledge about reality and the world are made. Genres, in this view, both respond to and contribute to the constitution of social contexts, as well as the socialization of individuals. Genres, then, are more than just socially embedded; they are socially constructive.

Linguists such as Hasan (1989) have suggested that the crucial properties of a genre can be expressed as a range of possible textual structures. Martin (1992), equally, puts forward the view that genres can be defined in terms of similarities and differences in the discourse structures of the texts. While discourse structure is clearly a characterizing feature of some genres, it is not

always the case that every instance of a particular genre will have exactly the same discourse structure (nor indeed the same communicative purpose) (Askehave and Swales 2000).

Communicative purpose is an important (although complex) criterion for deciding whether a text is an instance of a particular genre. That is, a text may be presented in an unusual way (for that particular genre) but still have the same communicative aim as other instances of the particular genre. In some cases, the text might be considered a 'best example' of the particular genre, and in others, it might be so atypical as to be considered a 'problematic' example of the genre.

The issue of genre identification is, thus, a complex one and requires a flexible rather than a static view of what it is that leads users of a language to recognize a communicative event as an instance of a particular genre. A key factor in this process lies in a perspective on genre based on the notion of prototype (Rosch 1978, 1983) rather than on sets of defining features. Genres are most helpfully seen as 'resources for meaning' rather than 'systems of rules' (Swales 2002).

Steps in Genre Analysis

Bhatia (1993) and Bawarshi and Reiff (2010) present steps for carrying out the analysis of genres, in their case written genres. It is not necessary to go through all the stages that they list, nor in the order in which they are presented. For example, we may decide to take a 'text-first' or a 'context-first' approach to the analysis of a particular genre (Flowerdew 2002, 2011). That is, we may decide to start by looking at typical discourse patterns in the texts we are interested in (a text-first approach), or we may decide to start with an examination of the context of the texts we want to investigate (a context-first approach). The steps, then, should be used flexibly and selectively depending on the starting point of the analysis, the purpose of the analysis, the aspect of the genre that we want to focus on and the level of prior knowledge we already have of the particular genre.

The first step, however, is to collect samples of the genre you are interested in. Bhatia suggests taking a few randomly chosen texts for exploratory investigation, a single typical text for detailed analysis, or a larger sample of texts if we wish to investigate a few specified features. Clearly, the more samples you can collect of the genre, however, the better you will be able to identify typical features of the genre.

The next step is to consider what is already known about the particular genre. This includes knowledge of the setting in which it occurs as well as any conventions that are typically associated with the genre. For information on this, we can go to existing literature such as guide books and manuals as well as seek practitioner advice on the particular genre. It is also helpful to look at what analyses have already been carried out of the particular genre, or other related genres, by looking at research articles or books on the topic.

We next need to refine the analysis by defining the speaker or writer of the text, the audience of the text and their relationship with each other. That is, who uses the genre, who writes in the genre, who reads the genre and what roles the readers perform as they read the text?

We also need to consider the goal, or purpose, of the texts. That is, why do writers write this genre, why do readers read it and what purpose does the genre have for the people who use it?

A further important consideration is typical discourse patterns for the genre. That is, how are the texts typically organized, how are they typically presented in terms of layout and format and what are some language features that typically re-occur in the particular genre? Equally, what do people need to know to take part in the genre, and what view of the world does the text assume of its readers? That is, what values, beliefs and assumptions are assumed or revealed by the particular genre (Bawarshi and Reiff 2010)?

We should also think about the networks of texts that surround the genre and to what extent knowledge of these is important in order to be able to write or make sense of a particular genre.

The social and cultural context of genres

Current Question

An important stage in genre analysis, formerly, is an examination of the social and cultural context in which the genre is used. In the case of a written text, factors that might be considered Include:

- The setting of the text
- The focus and perspective of the text
- The purpose of the text
- The intended audience for the text, their role and purpose in reading the text

The relationship between writers and readers of the text; expectations, conventions and requirements for the text

- The background knowledge, values and understandings it is assumed the writer shares with their readers, including what is important to the reader and what is not
- The relationship of the text has with other texts.

These aspects of a genre, of course, are not as distinct as they appear in this kind of listing. As Yates and Orlikowski (2007) point out, they are deeply intertwined and each, in its way, has an impact on what a writer writes, and the way they write it.

These are the range of factors that impact on how the text is written, how it will be read and, importantly, how it will be assessed.

Setting of the text	• The kind of university and level of study, the kind of degree (e.g., honors, master's or doctoral, research or professional) • Study carried out in a 'hard' or 'soft', pure or applied, convergent or divergent area of study (Becher and Trowler 2001)
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Focus and perspective of the text	• Quantitative, qualitative or mixed method research • Claims that can be made, claims that cannot be made • Faculty views on what is 'good' research
Purpose of the text	• To answer a question, to solve a problem, to prove something, to contribute to knowledge, to display knowledge and understanding, to demonstrate particular skills, to convince a reader, to gain admission to a particular area of study
Audience, role and purpose in reading the text	• To judge the quality of the research • Primary readership of one or more examiners, secondary readership of the supervisor and anyone else the student shows their work to • How readers will react to what they read, the criteria they will use for assessing the text, who counts the most in judging the quality of the text
Relationship between writers and readers of the text	• Students writing for experts, for admission to an area of study (the primary readership), students writing for peers, for advice (the secondary readership)
Expectations, conventions and requirements for the text	• An understanding and critical appraisal of relevant literature • A clearly defined and comprehensive investigation of the research topic • Appropriate use of research methods and techniques for the research question • Ability to interpret results, develop conclusions and link them to previous research • Level of critical analysis, originality and contribution to knowledge expected • Literary quality and standard of presentation expected • Level of grammatical accuracy required • How the text is typically organized, how the text might vary for a particular research topic, • area of study, kind of study and research perspective • What is typically contained in each chapter • The amount of variation allowed in what should be addressed and how it should be addressed • The university's formal submission requirements in terms of format, procedures and timing
Background knowledge, values	• The background knowledge, values and understandings it is assumed students will share with their readers – what is important to their readers, what is not important to their readers • How much knowledge students are expected to display, the

and understandings	extent to which students should show what they know, what issues students should address, what boundaries students can cross
Relationship the text has with other texts	How to show the relationship between the present research and other people's research on the topic, what counts as valid previous research, acceptable and unacceptable textual borrowings, differences between reporting and plagiarizing

Current Question

Lesson-45

CRITICAL DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

Critical discourse analysis explores the connections between the **use of language** and the **social and political** contexts in which it occurs. It explores issues such as **gender, ethnicity, cultural difference, ideology and identity** and how these are both constructed and reflected in texts. It also investigates ways in which language constructs and is constructed by social relationships. A critical analysis may include a detailed textual analysis and move from there to an explanation and interpretation of the analysis. It might proceed from there to deconstruct and challenge the text being examined. This may include tracing underlying ideologies from the linguistic features of a text, unpacking particular biases and ideological presuppositions underlying the text, and relating the text to other texts and to people's experiences and beliefs. **Critical discourse analysis** starts with the assumption that language use is always social and that discourse both 'reflects and constructs the social world' (Rogers 2011).

Principles of Critical Discourse Analysis

There is no single view of what critical discourse analysis actually is, so it is difficult to present a complete, unified view on this. Fairclough and Wodak (1997), however, describe a number of principles for critical discourse analysis which underlie many of the studies done in this area. These include

- Social and political issues are constructed and reflected in discourse
- Power relations are negotiated and performed through discourse
- Discourse both reflects and reproduces social relations
- Ideologies are produced and reflected in the use of discourse

V Important Q

Social and political issues are constructed and reflected in discourse

The first of Fairclough and Wodak's principles is that critical discourse analysis addresses social and political issues and examines ways in which these are constructed and reflected in the use of certain discourse strategies and choices.

Power relations are negotiated and performed through discourse

The next principle of critical discourse analysis is that power relations are both negotiated and performed through discourse. One way in which this can be looked at is through an analysis of who controls conversational interactions, who allows a person to speak and how they do this.

Discourse both reflects and reproduces social relations

A further principle of critical discourse analysis is that discourse not only reflects social relations but is also part of, and reproduces, social relations. That is, social relations are both established and maintained through the use of discourse.

Ideologies are produced and reflected in the use of discourse

Another key principle of critical discourse analysis is that ideologies are produced and reflected in the use of discourse. This includes ways of representing and constructing society such as relations of power, and relations based on gender, class and ethnicity.

Critical discourse analysis ‘includes not only a description and interpretation of discourse in context, but also offers an explanation of why and how discourses work’ (Rogers 2004). Researchers working within this perspective are concerned with a critical theory of the social world, the relationship of language and discourse in the construction and representation of the social world, and a methodology that allows them to describe, interpret and explain such relationships. (Rogers 2011)

Doing critical discourse analysis

Researchers working within this perspective *are concerned with a critical theory of the social world, the relationship of language and discourse in the construction and representation of the social world, and a methodology that allows them to describe, interpret and explain such relationships.* (Rogers 2011)

A critical analysis, then, might commence by deciding what discourse type, or genre, the text represents and to what extent and in what way the text conforms to it (or not). It may also consider to what extent the producer of the text has gone beyond the normal boundaries for the genre to create a particular effect.

The analysis may consider the framing of the text; that is, how the content of the text is presented, and the sort of angle or perspective the writer or speaker is taking. Closely related to framing is the notion of foregrounding; that is, what concepts and issues are emphasized, as well as what concepts and issues are played down or back-grounded in the text. Equally important to the analysis are the background knowledge, assumptions, attitudes and points of view that the text presupposes (Huckin 1997).

At the sentence level, the analyst might consider what has been foregrounded in each of the sentences in the text; that is, what has been put at the front of each sentence to indicate what it is ‘about’. The analysis may also consider who is doing what to whom; that is, agent-patient relations in the discourse, and who has the most authority and power in the discourse. It may also consider what agents have been left out of sentences such as when the passive voice is used, and why this has been done.

At the word and phrase level, connotations of particular words and phrases might be considered as well as the text’s degree of formality or informality, degree of technicality and what this means for other participants in the text. The choice of words which express degrees of certainty and attitude may also be considered and whether the intended audience of the text might be expected to share the views expressed in the text, or not.

The procedure an analyst follows in this kind of analysis depends on the research situation, the research question and the texts that are being studied. What is essential, however? is that there is some attention to the critical, discourse and analysis in whatever focus is taken up in the analysis (Rogers 2011).

Critical discourse analysis, then, takes us beyond the level of description to a deeper understanding of texts and provides, as far as might be possible, some kind of explanation of why a text is as it is and what it is aiming to do. It looks at the relationship between discourse and society and aims to describe, interpret and explain this relationship. As van Dijk (1998) has argued, it is through discourse that many ideologies are formulated, reinforced and reproduced. Critical discourse analysis aims to provide a way of exploring this and, in turn, challenging some of the hidden and ‘out of sight’ social, cultural and political ideologies and values that underlie texts.

Discourse Analysis and Multimodality

Multimodal discourse analysis considers how texts draw on modes of communication such as pictures, film, video, images and sound in combination with words to make meaning. It has examined print genres as well as genres such as web pages, film and television programs. It considers how multimodal texts are designed and how semiotic tools such as colour, framing, focus and positioning of elements contribute to the making of meaning in these texts.

Much of the work in multimodal discourse analysis draws from Halliday’s (1978, 1989) social semiotic approach to language, a view that considers language as one among a number of semiotic resources (such as gesture, images and music) that people use to communicate, or make meaning, with each other. Language, in this view, cannot be considered in isolation from meaning but needs to be considered within the sociocultural context in which it occurs. Multimodal discourse analysis, thus, aims to describe the socially situated semiotic resources that we draw on for communication. Halliday (2009) describes three types of social meanings, or functions that are drawn on simultaneously in the use of language. These are ideational (what the text is about), interpersonal (relations between participants) and textual meanings (how the message is organized). In multimodal texts these meanings are realized visually in how the image conveys aspects of the real world (the ideational, or representational meaning of the image), how the images engage with the viewer (the interpersonal, or modal meaning of the image) and how the elements in an image are arranged to archive its intention or effect (the textual, or compositional meaning of the image).

Jewitt (2009) describes four theoretical assumptions that underlie multimodal discourse analysis. The **first** is that language is part of an ensemble of modes, each of which has equal potential to contribute to meaning. Images, gaze and posture, thus, do not just support meaning, they each contribute to meaning. The **second** is that each mode of communication realizes different meanings and that looking at language as the principal (or sole) medium of communication only

reveals a partial view of what is being communicated. The **third** assumption is that people select from and configure these various modes in order to make meaning and that the interaction between these modes and the distribution of meanings between them are part of the production of meaning. The **fourth** assumption is that meanings that are made by the use of multimodal resources are, like language, social. These meanings, further, are shaped by the norms, rules and social conventions for the genre that are current at the particular time, in the particular context.